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Value differences between young men and women: is there an "ideological gender gap" in Russia?

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Abstract

The *ideological gender gap*, which emerged originally in Western democracies, has recently been noticed in other nations as well. This study aims to explore whether this trend has reached Russia. Using data from the R. Inglehart Laboratory for Comparative Social Research (2019-2020), the paper analyzes the following set of values: *equality of opportunities, freedom of choice, tolerance towards diversity,* and *trust in state institutions*. According to the developmental theory of the gender gap, the shift towards post-materialist values is associated with generational change. The younger generation holds more progressive views, and young women tend to hold these views more often. Thus, the shift towards post-materialist values is considered to be faster among women, forming a gender gap in ideology. The results of the regression analysis indicate that young men and women in Russia have different views on gender equality, justification of abortion, divorce and homosexuality, and tolerance of outgroups. At the same time, the gap in values related to gender equality decreases for older generations, while the gaps in other values do not follow this pattern.

Аннотация

Идеологический гендерный разрыв, возникший изначально в западных демократиях, в последнее время обнаруживается и в других странах. Цель данного исследования - выяснить, актуальна ли эта тенденция для России. Используя данные Лаборатории сравнительных социальных исследований им. Р. Инглхарта (2019-2020 гг.), в работе анализируется следующий набор ценностей: *равенство возможностей, свобода выбора, терпимость к разнообразию* и *доверие к государственным институтам.* Согласно теории развития гендерного разрыва, сдвиг в сторону постматериалистических ценностей связан со сменой поколений. Молодое поколение придерживается более прогрессивных взглядов, особенно молодые женщины. Таким образом, считается, что сдвиг в сторону постматериалистических ценностей происходит быстрее среди женщин, формируя гендерный разрыв в идеологии. Результаты регрессионного анализа показывают, что у молодых мужчин и женщин в России разные взгляды на гендерное равенство, оправдание абортов, разводов и гомосексуальности, а также на толерантность к аутгруппам. При этом разрыв в ценностях, связанных с гендерным равенством, уменьшается для старших поколений, в то время как разрыв в других ценностях не укладывается в эту логику.

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Introduction

The research field devoted to the gender gap in ideology has been actively developing since the end of the twentieth century, when the so-called modern gender gap was discovered, demonstrating the more liberal political behavior of women[1]. This phenomenon was first observed primarily through the analysis of election results. Research conducted in the US[2], Canada[3], and European states[4] provided strong evidence of an ideological gender gap in Western democracies. Along with important structural factors such as the increase in women's participation in the labor force and the growing access to women's education, the gender gap was also explained by the shift towards post-materialist values that occurs with generational change[5]. Thus, it has been observed that the gender gap in ideology is most pronounced among the younger generation, and gradually disappears for older groups.

Recently, a significant ideological gap between young men and women was noticed globally[6]. Thus, there are grounds to expect further spread of this trend. In Russia, the situation is rather complex. Over the past three decades, certain Western trends became nationwide. These include raising the age of first marriage, normalizing unregistered cohabitation[7], and a greater embrace of certain post-materialist values among the younger generation[8]. According to the All-Russian Public Opinion Research Center, the support of feminism is significantly higher among people aged 18-24 than among older cohorts[9]. However, the conservative turn of the Russian state[10] could overshadow this evolving dynamic. Although women are less likely to agree that household chores should be the responsibility of women and more likely to favor equal responsibilities in child-raising[11], there is evidence of greater

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[1] Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society 21 (2014): 315–44.

[2] Norrander, Barbara. '24 The Evolution of the Gender Gap'. In Princeton Readings in American Politics, edited by Richard M. Valelly, 460–67. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2009. https://doi.org/doi:10.1515/9781400833818-026.

[3] Gidengil, Elisabeth, André Blais, Richard Nadeau, and Neil Nevitte. 'Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences'. Women and Electoral Politics in Canada, 1 January 2003.

[4] Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society 21 (2014): 315–44.

[5] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

[6] *Financial Times*. "A New Global Gender Divide Is Emerging." January 29, 2024. https://www.ft.com/content/29fd9b5c-2f35-41bf-9d4c-994db4e12998.

[7] Skoglund, Ekaterina. 'Evolution of Gender Role Attitudes and Gender Equality in Russia', 3–26, 2021. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-981-15-9358-1_1.

[8] Almakaeva, Anna, and Aigul M. Mavletova. 'Modernization Process in Russia: Can We Expect the Shift to Emancipative Values?' The Monitoring of Public Opinion Economic&social Changes, 2018. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:159254260.

[9] VCIOM. Novosti. "Gendernoe ravenstvo v Rossii: ideal ili lozhnaya cel'?" Accessed May 12, 2025. https://wciom.ru/analytical-reviews/analiticheskii-obzor/gendernoe-ravenstvo-v-rossii-ideal-ili-lozhnaya-czel-.

[10] Shcherbak, Andrey. 'Russia's "Conservative Turn" after 2012: Evidence from the European Social Survey'. East European Politics 39 (6 June 2022): 1–26. https://doi.org/10.1080/21599165.2022.2084077.

[11] VCIOM. Novosti. "Liderstvo: gendernye stereotipy otstupayut." Accessed May 12, 2025. https://wciom.ru/analytical-reviews/analiticheskii-obzor/liderstvo-gendernye-stereotipy-otstupayut.

conservatism among women[12]. In addition, the retention of certain traditional gender attitudes is evidenced among both genders[13]. The mixed evidence forms a research puzzle that logically raises the following research question: *does gender affect values of the younger generation in Russia, forming an "ideological gender gap"?*

The goal of this study is to analyze whether there is a link between gender and adherence to certain values within the cohort of young people aged 18-24 in Russia, that is whether the Western trend of gender gap in ideology has reached Russia. As already mentioned, it is assumed that the younger generation holds more progressive views, but the shift towards these values is more rapid among women. Thus, in order to understand whether the trend of the ideological gender gap is relevant for Russia, it is necessary to check the following facets: 1) the generational effect; 2) the gender effect within the young cohort and 3) the intensity of the gender gap among different age cohorts. In this regard, the following objectives are set: 1) to provide an overview of the research field, covering both global trends and the Russian context; 2) to apply the developmental theory of the gender gap to the Russian context, constructing the hypotheses; 3) to provide operationalization for values; 4) to validate the measurement of values via confirmatory factor analysis; 5) to test the proposed hypotheses via regression analysis and describe the results; 6) to reflect on the results obtained and to place them into the general academic discussion.

The developmental theory of the gender gap[14] is primarily used when proposing hypotheses. It is assumed that young people in Russia are more inclined to post-materialist values[15], including equality of opportunities, freedom of choice and tolerance towards diversity. The shift towards post-materialist values is faster among women, thus creating a gender gap[16]. At the same time, adherence to post-materialist values excludes support for authoritarian rule[17]. Therefore, it is expected that young people in Russia have less trust in state institutions, and in the young cohort distrust is more pronounced among women. Concluding the above, the gender gap in values is expected to be most pronounced among the young cohort, gradually decreasing as age increases.

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[12] Ibid..

[13] Skoglund, Ekaterina. 'Evolution of Gender Role Attitudes and Gender Equality in Russia', 3–26, 2021. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-981-15-9358-1_1.

[14] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

[15] Ibid..

[16] Ibid..

[17] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.

This paper uses survey data from the R. Inglehart Laboratory for Comparative Social Research collected in 2019-2020[18]. Therefore, the time frame and operationalization of values are largely data-driven. I explore differences in values such as *equality of opportunities, freedom of choice, tolerance towards diversity and trust in state institutions* within the cohort of young people aged 18-24. These components are derived from the revised modernization theory[19] and the evolutionary theory of emancipation[20] on which the survey is based. Also, they are validated through confirmatory factor analysis. The hypotheses are tested via regression analysis. Four multiple regressions with interaction effects of gender and age are constructed with factors scores of equality of opportunities, freedom of choice, tolerance towards diversity and trust in state institutions being dependent variables.

This paper has three sections. Firstly, an overview of the research field is provided. This section is logically subdivided into four parts, covering phases of the ideological gender gap development, as well as approaches to study and explain this phenomenon. Also, the Soviet background and evidence of value differences in Russia is reviewed. This section is followed by the theoretical and methodological foundations. In this part, the theoretical framework is provided, where the developmental theory is applied to Russia. Also, the operationalization, data and methods used in the study are elaborated. Finally, the third chapter presents the results of factor and regression analyses.

[18] "Issledovatel'skie proekty". Accessed May 5, 2025. https://lcsr.hse.ru/proekty.
[19] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[20] Welzel, Christian. Freedom Rising: Human Empowerment and the Quest for Emancipation. Cambridge University Press, 2013.

1. Literature review

This part is devoted to a literature review covering recent findings in the field. It is known that so-called modern gender gap, which is characterized by a more progressive female vote, was discovered at the end of the twentieth century[21]. This trend has been evident in voting patterns in Western democracies. Further, studies on values, ideological self-placement and policy preferences occured, echoing recent findings on voting[22]. Different perspectives on examining ideological gender gap are presented in this section. Further, theories explaining this phenomenon are covered. After that, the Russian context is covered, taking into account the Soviet background in political values and gender attitudes. Studies on Russia present mixed evidence. On the one hand, there is evidence of Russian women being more conservative than men[23]. On the other hand, certain Western trends became nationwide, including raising the age of first marriage, normalizing unregistered cohabitation[24], and the spread of post-materialist values among the younger generation[25]. Thus, this part aims to give an overview of the research field covering both global trends and the Russian context.

1.1. Gender gap in ideology: key remarks

Phases in the development of the gender gap

The gender gap in ideology can be approached in various ways. The pioneering studies examining the ideological gap between genders focused on voting, as their scope of analysis was Western democracies where electoral processes play an important role. Scholars agree on the three stages of the gender voting gap in these states[26]. The first stage lasted until around the 1970s and can be called the

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[21] Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society 21 (2014): 315–44.; Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

[22] Norrander, Barbara, and Clyde Wilcox. 'The Gender Gap in Ideology'. *Political Behavior* 30 (1 December 2008): 503–23. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-008-9061-1.; Gidengil, Elisabeth, André Blais, Richard Nadeau, and Neil Nevitte. 'Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences'. Women and Electoral Politics in Canada, 1 January 2003.; Dassonneville, Ruth. 'Change and Continuity in the Ideological Gender Gap a Longitudinal Analysis of Left‐right Self‐placement in OECD Countries'. European Journal of Political Research 60, no. 1 (February 2021): 225–38. https://doi.org/10.1111/1475-6765.12384.

[23] Shcherbak, Andrey. 'Russia's "Conservative Turn" after 2012: Evidence from the European Social Survey'. East European Politics 39 (6 June 2022): 1–26. https://doi.org/10.1080/21599165.2022.2084077.

[24] Skoglund, Ekaterina. 'Evolution of Gender Role Attitudes and Gender Equality in Russia', 3–26, 2021. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-981-15-9358-1_1.

[25] Almakaeva, Anna, and Aigul M. Mavletova. 'Modernization Process in Russia: Can We Expect the Shift to Emancipative Values?' The Monitoring of Public Opinion Economic&social Changes, 2018. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:159254260.

[26] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.; Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society 21 (2014): 317.

traditional gender gap, which was expressed in more conservative voting of women[27]. Researchers attribute this to the higher religiosity of women,[28] as well as to their low level of involvement in hired labor[29]. In the late 1970s gender differences in voting ceased to be so pronounced, as is well illustrated by the examples of the United States, Canada and the Netherlands[30]. In particular in the US, this time is associated with men moving to the Republican Party at a faster rate than women[31]. Thus, the second phase can be outlined, which is called a *female party dealignment*. A third phase, observed in most of the advanced democracies in the 1980s-1990s and called the *modern gender gap*, found that women were more likely to vote for left-wing parties than male voters[32]. As for the US, women subsequently moved to the Democratic Party more actively than men[33]. The revealed tendencies were identified across all regions of the United States, despite some variations between the North and the South[34]. At the same time, it became clear that the electoral gender gap is not the result of specific elections or issues, but a reaction to more general societal conditions[35]. The increased involvement of women in the paid workforce was one of them. This has led women to become more economically independent and gaining greater autonomy. Thus, traditional gender roles were being eroded and the division of labour was changing. In addition, women were at greater risk of working in underpaid sectors, making them more economically vulnerable. As a result, women more often supported left-wing parties that advocated generous social support[36].

Voting and party support

After the modern gender gap was discovered in several Western democracies, researchers began to investigate whether these trends are relevant for other states, as well as whether such trends are sustainable over time. Inglehart and Norris conduct one of the seminal studies where they test their developmental theory, which seeks to explain the gender gap in ideology through the process of

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[27] Randall, Vicky. Women and Politics: An International Perspective, 1987.
[28] Manow, Philip, and Patrick Emmenegger. 'Religion and the Gender Vote Gap: Women's Changed Political Preferences from the 1970s to 2010', no. 01 (2010).
[29] Baxter, Sandra, and Maijorie Lansing. 'Women and Politics, Revised Ed'. Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press, 1983.
[30] Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society 21 (2014): 315–44.
[31] Ibid..
[32] Ibid..
[33] Ibid..
[34] Norrander, Barbara. '24 The Evolution of the Gender Gap'. In Princeton Readings in American Politics, edited by Richard M. Valelly, 460–67. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2009. https://doi.org/doi:10.1515/9781400833818-026.
[35] BOX-STEFFENSMEIER, JANET M., SUZANNA DE BOEF, and TSE-MIN LIN. 'The Dynamics of the Partisan Gender Gap'. American Political Science Review 98, no. 3 (2004): 515–28. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0003055404001315.
[36] Iversen, Torben, and Frances Rosenbluth. 'The Political Economy of Gender: Explaining Cross-National Variation in the Gender Division of Labor and the Gender Voting Gap'. *American Journal of Political Science* 50 (1 January 2006): 1–19. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1540-5907.2006.00166.x.

societal modernization in post-industrial countries[37]. The developmental theory was tested using data from World Values Surveys conducted in over 60 countries between the early 1980s and the early to mid-1990s[38]. The states were divided into three groups, namely advanced industrial, developing and post-communist societies. The group of post-communist states was represented by Eastern Germany, Estonia, Ukraine, Lithuania and Poland. The results of the study suggest that many postindustrial societies by the 1990s are characterized by a greater tendency of women to vote more leftwards, thus establishing a modern gender gap similar to what has been observed in the US. At the same time, the gender gap is more pronounced within the young cohort. Contrary to the tendencies found in established democracies, the traditional gender gap persisted in the majority of developing and post-communist countries. Apparently, in these societies relative cultural unity between genders in their values, especially attitudes towards post-materialism remained stable. In addition, the women's movement is not as well developed in these states[39].

Following this fundamental study, scholars continued to conduct comparative analyses. Giger echoes the findings of Inglehart and Norris by suggesting that the modern gender gap is indeed a tendency in most Western European democracies. The exceptions are Italy, Spain, and Luxembourg, although the traditional gender gap tends to decrease in these countries[40]. Abendschon and Steinmetz enlarge the sample to the 25 EU member states, including those that were formerly communist. This study explains the modern gender gap through the socio-structural and cultural-attitudinal characteristics, generally supporting the developmental theory. For 2008, the modern gender gap spread to countries where it had not been observed before, namely Italy, Spain, Luxembourg, and Finland. However, with regard to post-Soviet states, the modern gender gap was found only in Bulgaria and Estonia, while in most countries of this group women still tended to vote more conservative. One possible explanation for this is that leftist parties may seem less appealing to women because they may differ from the traditional left-wing parties found in established democracies. Also, when studying the electoral gap, scholars use the European Values Study data on anticipated support of the parties, but rather than data on real electoral results, which might be seen as one of the limitations of this research[41]. There was also an attempt to apply the developmental theory at the national level. Nir and Friedberg studied Israeli elections, assuming different levels of modernization in the center and periphery of the state, which would provoke a modern gender gap in the more socio-economically advantaged areas. The

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[37] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

[38] Ibid..

[39] Ibid..

[40] Giger, Nathalie. 'Towards a Modern Gender Gap in Europe?: A Comparative Analysis of Voting Behavior in 12 Countries'. *The Social Science Journal* 46 (1 September 2009): 474–92.

[41] Abendschön, Simone, and Stephanie Steinmetz. 'The Gender Gap in Voting Revisited: Women's Party Preferences in a European Context'. *Social Politics: International Studies in Gender, State and Society* 21 (2014): 315–44.

results of the study appeared to be uncertain. The hypothesis was confirmed only for the 2013 elections, while no connection was found in 2015[42].

At the same time, there is evidence that men tend to support right-wing parties more often than women. Immerzeel et al. identified this trend among 12 Western European countries on the basis of the European Values Study for 2010. It is worth noting, however, that there is a considerable variation in the size of the gap among states[43]. Spierings and Zaslove, for their part, argue that the gender gap is to some extent exaggerated. They analyzed 7 Western European states and found the same results: men tend to vote more actively for radical right parties. However, the scholars suggest that for both genders the main reason for voting for radical right parties is their opposition to immigration but not gender-based explanations[44].

It is important to recognize that neither women nor men are a totally homogenous group. The 2012 U.S. presidential elections highlighted some differences among both male and female voters. White women and white men are generally more likely to support Republicans, although the shift is more pronounced among men. Latino women are more likely to support the Democratic Party compared to Latino men[45]. African-Americans of both genders tend to support the Democratic Party more strongly[46]. At the same time, women with college degrees lean Democratic, while non-college-educated white women favor Republicans. Nonwhite voters overwhelmingly align with the Democratic Party across education levels[47]. This emphasizes the intertwining of gender, education and ethnicity in shaping political preferences in the United States.

Recent research indicates that the gender gap in ideology is still present in most Western democracies. This is confirmed by a cross-national study of 16 Western democracies using data between 1985 and 2019[48]. This research contributes to the idea that participating in wage labor leads women to more left voting. The simple but important clarification introduced is that this is only relevant for parties that "strongly support gender-egalitarian policies in the labour market"[49]. Thus, a marked difference in electoral behavior between men and women has been revealed, with women showing an increasing tendency to support left-wing political parties. But what was the rationale behind this? Scholars have

[42] Atmor, Nir, and Chen Friedberg. 'Gender Gaps in the Center versus the Periphery: Evidence from the Israeli Elections'. *Israel Studies Review* 34, no. 2 (2019): 92–113.
[43] Immerzeel, Tim, Hilde Coffé, and Tanja Van der Lippe. 'Explaining the Gender Gap in Radical Right Voting: A Cross-National Investigation in 12 Western European Countries'. *Comparative European Politics* 13 (2015): 263–86.
[44] Spierings, Niels, and Andrej Zaslove. 'Gendering the Vote for Populist Radical-Right Parties'. *Patterns of Prejudice* 49, no. 1–2 (2015): 135–62.
[45] Bejarano, Christina E. 'Latino Gender and Generation Gaps in Political Ideology'. Politics & Gender 10, no. 1 (2014): 62–88.
[46] Kittilson, Miki. 'Gender and Electoral Behavior', 21–32, 2018. https://doi.org/10.1057/978-1-137-59074-9_2.
[47] Pew Research Center. Changing Partisan Coalitions in a Politically Divided Nation. Pew Research Center, 2024.
[48] Di Landro, Gonzalo. 'Party Behaviour and the Gender Voting Gap'. *British Journal of Political Science* 55 (2025): e20.
[49] Ibid., 1.

begun to investigate this issue further, looking at ideological self-placement, as well as political values and policy preferences of both men and women.

Ideological self-placement, political values and policy preferences

Norrander and Wilcox conducted one of the seminal studies analyzing the gender gap through ideological self-identification. It was limited to the United States from 1972 to 2004 and used the ideological self-placement scale of the American National Elections Study (ANES). The results of the study indicate that the gender gap in ideological self-placement generally coincides with the voting gender gap. The authors attribute the emergence of this phenomenon both to the declining class basis of ideological identification and socio-demographic characteristics. The research shows that well-educated and single women throughout the whole period positioned themselves as more liberal[50]. Thus, the gender gap is associated with the increase in the share of women of this group by the 2000s. Although the difference is not fundamental, the authors also highlight that predictors of ideological self-placement of men and women tend to vary[51]. Women still pay more attention to the gender-specific issues compared to social welfare issues, although attitudes to abortion and women's roles remain important factors for both genders[52]. In contrast, the research analyzing the 2000 Canadian federal election shows that womens' tendency to vote more intensively for the leftist party was connected with their more common support of the welfare system[53].

Further, Dassonneville contributes to the field by conducting a comprehensive cross-national analysis on gender difference in ideological self-placement. The research covers 36 OECD countries between 1973 and 2018. The results of the study confirm previous findings, suggesting the strong change in ideology among genders occurred in the late 1980s and early 1990s and varied across states. At the same time, Dassonneville concludes that after this drastic change women's ideological self-placement remained relatively stable. Thus, starting with the generation of Baby-boomers, younger generations of women do not tend to have significantly different ideological stances. This means that the increase in ideological gender gap in the last 2010s is connected with post-Boomer men gaining more right-wing attitudes[54].

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[50] Norrander, Barbara, and Clyde Wilcox. 'The Gender Gap in Ideology'. *Political Behavior* 30 (1 December 2008): 503–23. https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-008-9061-1.
[51] Ibid..
[52] Ibid..
[53] Gidengil, Elisabeth, André Blais, Richard Nadeau, and Neil Nevitte. 'Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences Women to the Left? Gender Differences in Political Beliefs and Policy Preferences'. Women and Electoral Politics in Canada, 1 January 2003.
[54] Dassonneville, Ruth. 'Change and Continuity in the Ideological Gender Gap a Longitudinal Analysis of Left‐right Self‐placement in OECD Countries'. European Journal of Political Research 60, no. 1 (February 2021): 225–38. https://doi.org/10.1111/1475-6765.12384.

Langsæther and Knutsen investigate the gender gap by looking at political attitudes rather than ideological self-placement. They use data from the European Values Survey between 2017 and 2020 from 14 established Western European democracies. Based on the study results, "women hold more leftist economic views, prioritize the environment over economic concerns, are more pro-immigration, put greater emphasis on gender equality, and hold less traditionalist moral views than men"[55]. This evidence is relevant for most of the analyzed countries, although the pattern is more stable in Northern European and Protestant states than in Southern and Catholic ones[56]. The research supports studies which suggest that women tend to support left-wing platforms more often. The set of political attitudes, which women are likely to have, coincides with the agenda of left-wing parties.

Also, there are studies that examine specific policy preferences. Hansen et al. revealed that women are less likely to support the use of force in the United States[57]. Beauregard et al. suggest that sexism is a predictor of more intensive support for law enforcement and defense funding in the United States and Australia. At the same time, sexism is connected with advocating for the reduction of "pro-women" policies such as social services, education, and health[58]. Benegal et al. contributes to the field by suggesting that sexism is also correlated with climate change denial and opposition to green policies[59]. Campbell and Shorrocks (2023) provide a comprehensive study of the gender gap in Great Britain, covering economic and social values, as well as attitudes of both genders towards public spending and the European Union[60]. It emphasizes the significance of age, highlighting that the support of the British Labour Party is higher among younger women. Moreover, such issues as health care and education are also more important for them compared to their older female counterparts[61]. It is also important to take into account the intra-generational divide. Henn et al., analyzing data from the 2017 European Values Study, confirms that the majority of today's young people in Europe involved in environmental activism are largely guided by post-materialist and cosmopolitan values. Notably, they tend to be university educated women holding left-wing political positions and being active in politics. At the same time, the study draws attention to a smaller but noticeable part of young people who hold materialistic and nationalistic views and are less involved in environmental movements. This group

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[55] Langsæther, Peter, and Carl Knutsen. *The Progressive Sex: Gender Gaps in Political Attitudes* (2021), 11.
[56] Ibid..
[57] Hansen, Michael, and Kathleen Dolan. 'Cross-Pressures on Political Attitudes: Gender, Party, and the #MeToo Movement in the United States'. *Political Behavior* 45 (18 January 2022). https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-021-09763-1.
[58] Beauregard, Katrine, Mirya Holman, and Jill Sheppard. 'Sexism and Attitudes Toward Policy Spending in Australia and the United States'. Frontiers in Political Science 4 (1 May 2022): 892111. https://doi.org/10.3389/fpos.2022.892111.
[59] Benegal, Salil, and Mirya R. Holman. 'Understanding the Importance of Sexism in Shaping Climate Denial and Policy Opposition'. *Climatic Change* 167, no. 3 (2021): 1–19.
[60] Campbell, Rosie, and Rosalind Shorrocks. 'The Evolution of the Gender Gap'. *British Social Attitudes*, 2023.
[61] Ibid..

consists mainly of young men with lower levels of education and income[62]. Therefore, one can also talk about the gender gap in youth environmental activism in Europe.

1.2. Explaining the gender gap in ideology

To summarize, scholars provide both individual-level and country-level explanations of the modern gender gap in ideology. There are also more complex theories. Individual-level explanations suggest that such factors as age, education, race, ethnicity, religion, are important as they "intersect with gender in complex ways"[63]. Also, a feminist orientation might play an important role. Country-level explanations mostly focus on the level of women's participation in the labor force and education, as well as on the level of secularization and gender culture[64].

Inglehart and Norris aggregate the explanations introduced earlier, evolving a developmental theory. It is assumed that the process of societal modernization in post-industrial states influenced the political preferences of both genders, which led to the ideological divide. Societal modernization includes both structural and cultural changes. Among important structural changes, the enhanced educational possibilities for women and the increased female labour participation should be highlighted[65]. Besides, the secularization processes played an important role, preparing the ground for a shift in voting behaviour. Regarding cultural factors, Inglehart and Norris suggest that the spread of post-materialist values, such as values of freedom, self-expression and gender equality, can be associated with the development of the modern gender gap. Other scholars may not fully agree on this point and suggest that the gender gap is associated with the growth of "feminist consciousness"[66] rather than with post-materialist values as a whole. However, there is evidence that women are more likely to support a broad set of left-wing policies, not just those that address explicitly gendered issues[67]. Also, the developmental theory suggests that the gender gap varies across nations. It is expected that in traditional societies, the traditional gender gap will persist, with women being more conservative politically, while the modern gender gap will be more relevant in post-industrial societies with post-materialist values. At the same time, the spread of post-materialist values is expected to vary

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[62] Henn, Matt, James Sloam, and Ana Nunes. 'Young Cosmopolitans and Environmental Politics: How Postmaterialist Values Inform and Shape Youth Engagement in Environmental Politics'. *Journal of Youth Studies* 25, no. 6 (2022): 709–29.
[63] Kittilson, Miki. 'Gender and Electoral Behavior', 27, 2018. https://doi.org/10.1057/978-1-137-59074-9_2.
[64] Ibid..
[65] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. *International Political Science Review* 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 445-446. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.
[66] Bergh, Johannes. 'Explaining the Gender Gap: A Cross‐National Analysis of Gender Differences in Voting'. *Journal of Elections* Public Opinion and Parties (1 October 2007): 238. 446 https://doi.org/10.1080/17457280701617078.
[67] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

depending on age. The transformation of gender roles should have more impact on younger women. This means that the gender gap among the younger generation should be more explicit[68].

There is also an assumption that ideological affiliation is associated with personal traits, a set of which is peculiar to each gender[69]. Some scholars believe that gender traits have an evolutionary biological explanation[70]. According to this view, women are more sensitive and empathic because of the evolutionary burden of having and caring for children, whereas men are more competitive and risk-taking because of the need to "compete with others to attract fertile women"[71]. Other scholars prefer to look at gender personal traits through the lens of social roles. It is suggested that "in early life experiences women are encouraged not to compete or be aggressive, but to be more social and caring"[72]. Women are usually expected to maintain the daily household routine and care for not only children but also for the sick and elderly. Men vice versa have more opportunity to "pursue individualistic goals outside the household"[73]. These two theoretical approaches have contrasting views on how differences in personality traits may manifest themselves at the national level. The evolutionary approach suggests that differences in personality traits should be greater in industrialized and more prosperous countries because "these societies are psychologically closer to hunter-gatherer cultures than are less-developed agricultural or pastoral cultures"[74]. The social role approach argues the opposite, suggesting that as the state becomes more prosperous and egalitarian, gender-based differences in personality traits should disappear because men and women have similar roles[75]. Apparently, this logic is not supported by the real evidence, since the trends on gender gap in personal traits are generally coincident with the modern ideological gender gap[76]. However, the evolutionary approach does not seem very convincing. The emphasis on genetic components of personality traits that influence political views could be seen as overly deterministic, potentially downplaying the role of individual agency and environmental influences.

Also, the ideological gender gap can be explained from the perspective of the social dominance theory[77]. It suggests that adherence to the ideologies by men and women depends on different levels of social dominance orientation. It is expected that men more often support militarism, coercion, racism

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[68] Ibid., 447.
[69] Morton, Rebecca, Jean-Robert Tyran, and Erik Wengström. 'Personality Traits and the Gender Gap in Ideology', 153–85, 2016. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-319-40118-8_7.
[70] Buss, David M. 'Evolutionary Foundations of Personality'. In *Handbook of Personality Psychology*, 317–44. Elsevier, 1997.
[71] Morton, Rebecca, Jean-Robert Tyran, and Erik Wengström. 'Personality Traits and the Gender Gap in Ideology', 156, 2016. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-3-319-40118-8_7.
[72] Ibid..
[73] Ibid., 157.
[74] Ibid..
[75] Ibid..
[76] Ibid., 158.
[77] Pratto, Felicia, Lisa M. Stallworth, and Jim Sidanius. 'The Gender Gap: Differences in Political Attitudes and Social Dominance Orientation.' *The British Journal of Social Psychology* 36 (Pt 1) (1997): 49–68.

and patriotism which imply the domination of one social group over another, while women tend to support policies that are aimed at improving the position of lower-status groups. Thus, women's support for a more left-wing agenda is "symptomatic of their lower levels of social dominance orientation"[78]. It is assumed that women, despite their lack of internal homogeneity, are still more predisposed to left-wing views than men[79].

Thus, the gender gap in ideology has gone through three phases, moving from traditional conservative voting among women to modern leftist preferences in Western democracies. In addition to voting, scholars also explore ideological self-identification, party affiliation, as well as political attitudes and policy preferences based on survey data. The studies emphasize the role of structural factors such as increasing female labor force participation and education, as well as cultural shifts toward post-materialist values, in shaping the contemporary gender gap. The modern gender gap is prominent in post-industrial societies, while, according to evidence from cross-national studies, the traditional gender gap persists in developing and post-communist states[80]. Individual-level factors such as age, education, and feminist orientation can also affect political preferences, shaping the gender gap in ideology. At the same time, sociological theories focus on gendered social roles and the position of men and women in the social hierarchy, which influences their political preferences. With an overview of the global discussion regarding the gender gap in ideology, it is worth taking a closer look at the Russian context.

1.3. Soviet background

When discussing political values in Russia, it is important to consider contemporary gender attitudes and the foundations of them, which were laid back in the Soviet period. The USSR aimed at resolving the "woman's question"[81]. The main idea was to engage women in the labor force, while expanding educational opportunities, improving childcare systems, and enacting protective labor laws and social programs. These measures were "designed to make sure that women's employment outside the home does not interfere too much with her traditional role within it"[82]. Thus, while encouraging women's workforce participation, the Soviet state also emphasized the significance of the nuclear family and the role of women within it. Barbara Jancar argues that the self-perception of Soviet women remained largely traditional[83]. There is also evidence that women in the USSR still perceived politics as a "man's

[78] Ibid., 50.
[79] Ibid..
[80] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.
[81] Carnaghan, Ellen, and Donna Bahry. 'Political Attitudes and the Gender Gap in the USSR'. *Comparative Politics* 22, no. 4 (1990): 381.
[82] Ibid..
[83] Ibid..

field", meaning that they were both less interested in politics and had a "lower sense of political efficacy"[84]. Thus, the integration of women into the workforce has resulted in a double burden as it has been added to domestic work. Although gender equality was legally proclaimed, Soviet women were hardly able to experience it in practice[85].

Despite the obvious data limitations, there is some evidence on the political values of women in the USSR. Carnaghan and Bahry conclude that Soviet women had the same views on certain issues as women in the West[86]. According to Tatiana Mamonova, prominent in underground samizdat feminist publications, women are inherently opposed to violence and war in particular[87]. In addition, Soviet women seem to be more concerned with social welfare. In the context of the USSR, this meant not only the provision of public services, but also the availability of consumer goods[88]. In addition, women constituted the majority of religious believers, which probably indicates them to be more moralistic[89].

Carnaghan and Bahry also found that gender affects political attitudes. The conclusions suggest that women of the USSR tend to be "less democratic, less tolerant, and more religious"[90]. Policy preferences of Soviet women imply greater support of social spending and less support for a higher defense budget or state control over the economy[91]. Many of these trends are affected by a *feminist orientation*, which coincides with some of the evidence from Western countries. However, it is important to note the limitations of the study. First, the number of respondents is 2,667, and 85% of them are Jews who lived in urban areas of the European part of the Soviet Union before immigration[92]. The selected respondents are likely to be dissatisfied with the Soviet government as all of them are immigrants. Thus, the sample is not random, which makes it hardly generalizable to the entire population of the Soviet Union. Second, the operationalization is hardly justified. For instance, one has to guess that *tolerance* means tolerance towards political diversity rather than tolerance towards vulnerable groups[93]. In this case, it is also not clear how tolerance towards political diversity differs from democratic orientation. Also, in order to understand attitudes towards the use of military force, respondents were asked whether they supported military action against Germany in World War II, aid

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[84] Ibid..
[85] Ibid..
[86] Ibid..
[87] Mamonova, Tatyana. 'Introduction. The Feminist Movement in the Soviet Union'. *Women and Russia: Feminist Writings from the Soviet Union*, 1984.
[88] Sharon Wolchik, "The Precommunist Legacy, Economic Development, Social Transformation, and Women's Roles in Eastern Europe," in Wolchik and Meyer eds., pp. 42-43.
[89] Wolchik, Sharon L. 'The Precommunist Legacy, Economic Development, Social Transformation, and Women's Roles in Eastern Europe'. Women, State, and Party in Eastern Europe, 1985, 31–46.
[90] Carnaghan, Ellen, and Donna Bahry. 'Political Attitudes and the Gender Gap in the USSR'. *Comparative Politics* 22, no. 4 (1990): 393.
[91] Ibid..
[92] Ibid., 383.
[93] Ibid., 386.

to North Vietnam, and intervention in Czechoslovakia in 1968[94]. The selection of these events should be well-explained because otherwise it seems problematic.

There was also an attempt to study the ideological gender gap in the USSR using qualitative methods. Tedin and Yap conducted interviews with 504 respondents from the Moscow oblast. The study suggests that women tend to be conservative, meaning that "they are more risk adverse than men"[95]. Women are more likely than men to express the view that reforms are happening too rapidly. They tend to resist radical changes in society and oppose depriving the Communist Party of its dominant position[96]. In contrast to men, women are less optimistic about the transition to competitive elections and generally prefer to preserve the status quo. This may seem surprising given that the existing social structure was largely patriarchal. However, rapid change often leads to social upheaval that strongly affects vulnerable groups, women in particular. Under the Soviet system, women had certain job security, access to basic social services and representation in local government. For them, change was therefore perceived as more difficult and risky than for men[97]. Women were also found to be less involved in politics, which can also be attributed to high workload due to the double burden. At the same time, women who supported feminist ideas were more likely to be involved in political discussions, had greater political knowledge, actively participated in unconventional political activities and, importantly, demonstrated greater political efficacy than those who did not hold feminist views[98].

To conclude, the Soviet state supported gender equality at the legislative level, but in practice reinforced traditional gender roles, leaving women with a double burden of work and domestic responsibilities. Research shows that Soviet women were generally more conservative, less politically active, and more focused on social welfare than men. Although feminist-minded women tended to be less conservative, demonstrating greater political efficacy. At the same time, attention should be drawn to data limitations, as well as the usage of hardly generalizable samples, which makes it difficult to draw firm conclusions.

1.4. Evidence from Russia

Since the collapse of the Soviet Union, Russia's ideological landscape has undergone notable changes. The Russian state sought to redefine its identity and values. In the context of gender, this meant a revival of traditional gender roles, with the government promoting women's prioritization of family

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[94] Ibid., 390.
[95] Tedin, Kent L., and Oi-Kuan Fiona Yap. 'The Gender Factor in Soviet Mass Politics: Survey Evidence from Greater Moscow'. *Political Research Quarterly* 46, no. 1 (1993): 205. https://doi.org/10.2307/449064.
[96] Ibid., 179–211.
[97] Ibid..
[98] Ibid..

and domestic responsibilities[99]. This ideological shift coincided with the market transition that put women in a particularly vulnerable position. Women faced greater barriers to employment, resulting in the number of working women declining twice as fast as men during Yeltsin's rule. Also, during the decade of market reforms, the ratio of female to male wages dropped from approximately 70% to less than 50%[100]. Stegmaier and Erb, analyzing World Values data 1991-1995, revealed that women were generally less supportive of free-market than men. By 1995, however, support for the free market had declined among both genders. Men's support declined more rapidly and eventually equaled women's level of dissatisfaction. As a result, by the mid-1990s, the gender gap in attitudes toward free-market had substantially narrowed[101]. This was not initially expected by scholars, possibly because of the lack of reliable data on the challenges that men face as a result of radical market reforms[102]. Goss and Chairholder, analyzing VCIOM survey data from 1994 to 2000, found that personal or family economic circumstances influenced both women's and men's support for market reforms. Thus, the existing gender gap in support for market reforms is attributed to the differences in income between men and women rather than to other gender problems[103].

Alongside economic hardships, women's political representation declined in the post-Soviet transition. Despite this general trend, the Women of Russia party emerged, which advocated for women's issues and also promoted generous social protection. Hesli et al. highlighted differences in voting patterns between men and women in the 1995 Russian parliamentary elections. It was found that women, on average, were more likely to support gender equality, believing that women should have equal access to governance. Women were also more likely than men to disagree that women would stay at home if they had a choice. It turned out that the support for the Women of Russia party was linked not only to gender but also to beliefs about gender equality. Russian women appeared to have more emancipatory views on gender issues, which made this group the most numerous among those who supported the party[104]. It is also known that women are less likely to support the use of military force. Holman and Shaykhutdinov analyze data from public opinion polls on the Chechen conflict in Russia to see if there

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[99] Stegmaier, Mary, and Gwyn Erb. 'Gender and Generation Gaps in Russian Economic Values during the Yeltsin Years'. *Politics & Policy* 33 (1 September 2005): 416–43. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1747-1346.2005.tb00802.x.

[100] Goss, Ernest P., and MacAllister Chairholder. 'Women ' s Attitudes to Market Reform in Russia : Evidence of the Gender Gap ?', 2004. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:43699319.

[101] Stegmaier, Mary, and Gwyn Erb. "Gender and Generation Gaps in Russian Economic Values during the Yeltsin Years." Politics & Policy 33 (September 1, 2005): 416–43. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1747-1346.2005.tb00802.x.

[102] Ibid..

[103] Goss, Ernest P., and MacAllister Chairholder. 'Women ' s Attitudes to Market Reform in Russia : Evidence of the Gender Gap ?', 2004. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:43699319.

[104] Hesli, Vicki L., Ha-Lyong Jung, William M. Reisinger, and Arthur H. Miller. 'The Gender Divide in Russian Politics'. *Women & Politics* 22, no. 2 (6 April 2001): 41–80. https://doi.org/10.1300/J014v22n02_02.

is a difference in attitudes towards this event based on gender. The research reveals that women hold more "dovish attitudes" towards the situation in Chechnya compared to men[105].

Since 2012, Russia has been undergoing a so-called "conservative turn" characterized by the rise of traditional values and the growing influence of the Russian Orthodox Church. Scherbak proposes a four-factor model of popular conservatism, which includes Loyalty, Conformism, Religiosity, and Traditionalism/Security[106]. The study argues that conservative attitudes peaked in 2014-2016, and then steadily declined. It indicates that the "conservative turn" was more a reaction to "Crimean consensus" than a deep societal shift. The study challenges assumptions that Russia's conservatism is entrenched in society. Also, it suggests that while the Kremlin's conservative agenda resonates during crises, it lacks enduring grassroots support. Analyzing individual-level predictors showed that less educated, right-leaning, and less politically active women constitute the majority of conservative respondents[107]. Paradoxically, they express higher trust and tolerance toward migrants, which perhaps can be connected with conformity to government migration and citizenship policy. In 2014 gender differences reversed temporarily, with men becoming more conservative, highlighting the geopolitical events' unique impact[108].

Along with adherence to traditional values, Russian society also shows a noticeable authoritarian tendency. Zemtsov studies authoritarian orientations in the political culture of modern Russians through the prism of the demand for a "strong hand", analyzing data from mass surveys by the Levada Center over the past three decades. It is concluded that the leaning towards authoritarianism in Russia is not a fairly inherent trait. At the turn of the 1980s-1990s, the majority of Russians supported democratic changes, while by 2018 the demand for a "strong hand" prevailed. It seems that this tendency is connected with dissatisfaction with the state of affairs in the country, thus being a reaction to the crisis situation. Also, the study emphasizes that when alternatives are offered, support for authoritarianism decreases. Some patterns connected with the socio-demographic characteristics are also highlighted. Generalized support for the "strong hand" is higher among the older generation, respondents living in villages and small towns, and those who are less well-off. At the same time, personalized support is higher among women and relatively well-off groups[109]. The reason why women have a higher level of personalized support is not completely understood. Probably it can indicate a

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[105] Holman, Mirya, and Renat Shaykhutdinov. 'The Chechen War and an Emerging Gender Gap in Russia'. *Canadian Slavonic Papers* 54 (14 April 2015): 88. https://doi.org/10.1080/00085006.2012.11092698.
[106] Shcherbak, Andrey. 'Russia's "Conservative Turn" after 2012: Evidence from the European Social Survey'. *East European Politics* 39 (6 June 2022): 1–26. https://doi.org/10.1080/21599165.2022.2084077.
[107] Ibid..
[108] Ibid..
[109] Zemtsov, AO. " 'Sil'naya Ruka': Avtoritarnost' v Politicheskoj Kul'ture Sovremennyh Rossiyan". Zhurnal Politicheskoj Filosofii i Sociologii Politiki «Politiya. Analiz. Hronika. Prognoz», no. 4 (95) (2019): 87–110.

greater reliance on paternalism, or an orientation towards social stability, which the current president represents.

Despite the dominance of traditional and authoritarian narratives, oppositional attitudes persist. Digital platforms have become a space for political expression in authoritarian settings where traditional media are controlled by the state. Savchenko and Freedman study gender differences in online political discourse in the context of the ongoing military conflict in Ukraine. They analyze comments under YouTube videos in pro-government and opposition channels from January 2022 to February 2024. The results of the analysis suggest that the share of women participating in opposition online discourse is moderately higher than that of men, while pro-government comments are significantly more often posted by men. Regarding the content of comments, women more often focus on social and economic issues, while men focus on geopolitics[110].

Furthermore, it is important to discuss the gender roles in Russia, which is a rather complex issue. As many developed countries, Russia is undergoing a process of family model transformation. Modern Russian society is characterized by raising the age of first marriage, postponing the birth of the first child, increasing the number of divorces, and normalizing unregistered cohabitation. However, the situation regarding other gender issues remains ambiguous. There is ambivalence in attitudes towards labor: women support equal opportunities in the professional sphere, but in times of crisis they are ready to cede jobs to men. Moreover, there is a setback in the perception of spouses' financial obligations. A shift from the egalitarian model of the family budget towards the traditional distribution of roles can be noticed. At the same time, despite formal support for women's equal participation in politics, their actual representation in government remains extremely low. It is noteworthy that a significant part of the respondents considers the existing level to be sufficient. The sphere of parenthood deserves special attention. Statistics show that only 2% of fathers take parental leave, and more than half of the respondents consider this practice socially unacceptable[111].

A number of studies on materialistic and post-materialist values among Russians also show a certain ambiguity. Almakaeva and Mavletova, drawing on Inglehart and Welzel's modernization theory, examine 5 waves of the World Values Survey on Russia from 1990 to 2017. The results of the study show that younger Russians demonstrate higher emancipatory values. At the same time, the main contribution to such dynamics is made by *autonomy, choice* and *voice*[112]. Autonomy is measured as

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[110] Savchenko, Elizaveta, and Michael Raphael Freedman. 'Gender Dynamics in Russian Online Political Discourse'. *arXiv Preprint arXiv:2408.09378*, 2024.

[111] Skoglund, Ekaterina. 'Evolution of Gender Role Attitudes and Gender Equality in Russia', 3–26, 2021. https://doi.org/10.1007/978-981-15-9358-1_1.

[112] Almakaeva, Anna, and Aigul M. Mavletova. 'Modernization Process in Russia: Can We Expect the Shift to Emancipative Values?' The Monitoring of Public Opinion Economic&social Changes, 2018. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:159254260.

prioritizing independence, imagination and less obedience in children, choice is measured as tolerance toward divorce, abortion, homosexuality, and voice is measured as the importance of free speech, citizen participation in politics[113]. At the same time, such component as *equality*, indicating gender equality in education, politics, labor, turned out to be not significant in cohort analysis. Moreover, the gender effect was noticed. Women were found to be more egalitarian on gender equality issues. Apart from gender and age effects, time period was taken into account. Crisis situations were found to be connected with a decrease in post-materialist values, while stabilization of the economic situation increased these values [114].

Thus, the following research puzzle arises: is there a modern ideological gap between young men and women in Russia? On the one hand, it can be expected that the initially Western trend has reached Russia within three decades as certain gender orientations such as raising the age of first marriage or normalizing unregistered cohabitation. Russia is also characterized by a high level of female participation in labor, which played an important role in shaping the gender gap in the West. These conditions, combined with the spread of post-materialist values among the younger generation, may contribute to the modern gender gap, with young women holding more progressive views than men. On the other hand, the conservative turn of the Russian state, characterized by policies supporting traditional family values and gender roles, may counter this trend. In addition, the legacy of Soviet-era gender norms can offset the effect of high levels of female labor force participation. Although women work at the same level as men, their traditional role in the family remains. The ambiguity of the situation is added by the mixed evidence from existing studies. Some emphasize women's more conservative and authoritarian preferences, while others point to their emancipatory views.

[113] Almakaeva, Anna, and Aigul M. Mavletova. 'Modernization Process in Russia: Can We Expect the Shift to Emancipative Values?' The Monitoring of Public Opinion Economic&social Changes, 2018. https://api.semanticscholar.org/CorpusID:159254260.
[114] Ibid..

2. Theoretical and methodological foundations

2.1. Developmental theory applied to the Russian context

This part is devoted to the theoretical framework. In this paper, I draw primarily on developmental theory by Inglehart and Norris[115], since it provides the most comprehensive approach to explain the modern gender gap. The theory aims to explain women's more progressive voting through structural factors and a shift towards post-materialist values. Considering the low level of competitiveness in Russian politics, it makes little sense to study the gender gap through voting. Thus, this study examines the gender gap directly through values. Consequently, the importance of structural factors is taken from the above theory, as well as the framework of post-materialist values, which is applied to the values under study.

In terms of structural factors, there are rather favorable conditions for the gender gap in ideology at the national level. First, Russian society is not characterized by high religiosity. Despite the important symbolic role of Orthodoxy in state narratives, genuine religious activity in Russia remains low[116]. There is also evidence that younger generations of Russians show lower levels of religiosity, including women[117]. Despite the gender gap in religiosity among older cohorts, where women are more religious, this seems no longer relevant for the younger generation. Thus, it can be stated that most young women in Russia are not guided by religious mindset. Second, according to official state statistics, women's employment in wage labor is quite high in Russia. For 2018, in the 20-24 age cohort it is 43% of female employment vs. 53% of male employment, while in the 25-29 age cohort it is 78% of female employment vs. 91% of male employment[118]. Sufficiently high rates of female participation in labor may indicate the possibility of many Russian women's financial independence. Also, the majority of the population with higher education in Russia are women. According to the 2020 All-Russian Census, 59% of women have higher education, compared to 41% of men[119]. In 2018, about 3.1 million female students pursued tertiary education in Russia, while nearly 2.7 million were male[120]. At the same time, there is still a marked tendency for young women to choose fields of study

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[115] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

[116] Skladanowski, Marcin, and Cezary Smuniewski. 'The Secularism of Putin's Russia and Patriarch Kirill's Church: The Russian Model of State–Church Relations and Its Social Reception'. *Religions* 14, no. 1 (2023): 119.

[117] Knyazeva, TN, LE Semenova, and AV Chevachina. 'Social Pragmatism and Religiosity of Contemporary Russian Youth'. Mediterranean Journal of Social Sciences 6, no. 6 supplement 5 (2015): 118–23.

[118] *Trud i Zanyatost' v Rossii.* Moskva: Federal'naya sluzhba gosudarstvennoj statistiki Rossijskoj Federacii, 2019.

[119] *Zhenshchiny i Muzhchiny Rossii.* Moskva: Federal'naya sluzhba gosudarstvennoj statistiki Rossijskoj Federacii, 2024.

[120] Statista. 'Enrollment by gender & educational stage Russia'. Accessed 1 May 2025. https://www.statista.com/statistics/1238282/enrollment-by-gender-and-education-level-russia/.

in the humanities and social sciences[121]. These factors provide a favorable landscape for the empowerment of young women and may lead them to be more critical of traditional gender roles and socially conservative orientations.

Regarding the cultural factor, Inglehart and Norris suggest that the shift towards post-materialist values is associated with the modern gender gap in ideology[122]. Such values begin to be emphasized as people's needs for economic and physical security are met[123]. It is also believed that the change in values is a rather long process, therefore it occurs with the replacement of generations[124]. In Russia, quite enough time has passed since the crisis of the 1990s to form a generation that has been socialized and raised in relative security and economic prosperity[125]. Therefore, a generational gap in emancipatory values can be expected. Thus, the following hypothesis is proposed:

H1: Young people in Russia tend to have **more post-materialist values** than older generations, more often prioritizing **equality of opportunities** (H1.1), **freedom of choice** (H1.2) and **tolerance towards diversity** (H1.3).

At the same time, despite the general trend of moving towards post-materialist values, this shift is much faster among women[126]. Apart from structural factors, this might stem from women's personal encounter with discrimination, encouraging their demand for gender inequality. In addition, the effect of the Internet spread should not be underestimated. This created broader opportunities for sharing feminist ideas, which could influence the socialization of young women in Russia[127]. In terms of attitudes towards marginalized groups, such as ethnic and linguistic minorities, a sense of solidarity can be expected from women who also face structural discrimination[128]. Thus, the following hypothesis is proposed:

H2: Young women in Russia tend to have **more post-materialist values** than men of the same age, more often prioritizing **equality of opportunities** (H2.1), **freedom of choice** (H2.2) and **tolerance towards diversity** (H2.3).

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[121] Zamyatnina, Elena Sergeevna. "Gendernye Razlichiya Pri Vybore Special'nosti v Vuze v Sovremennoj Rossii". Monitoring Obshchestvennogo Mneniya: Ekonomicheskie i Social'nye Peremeny, no. 3 (139) (2017): 163–76.
[122] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.
[123] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[124] Ibid..
[125] Ibid..
[126] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[127] Andreevskikh, Olga, and Marianna Muravyeva. 'Doing Gender Online: Digital Spaces for Identity Politics'. *The Palgrave Handbook of Digital Russia Studies*, 2021, 205–19.
[128] Pratto, Felicia, Lisa M. Stallworth, and Jim Sidanius. 'The Gender Gap: Differences in Political Attitudes and Social Dominance Orientation.' *The British Journal of Social Psychology* 36 (Pt 1) (1997): 49–68.

It is also suggested that the spread of post-materialist values has a positive effect on society's capacity for collective action[129]. In an authoritarian context, this means an increase in the number of dissidents, civil rights movements and public protests against authoritarian rule[130]. Apparently, adherence to post-materialist values contradicts support for authoritarian leadership. Assuming that adherence to post-materialist values is higher among the young population, and in the young cohort among women, the following hypotheses can be proposed:

H3: Young people in Russia tend to have **less trust in state institutions** than older generations.

H4: Young women in Russia tend to have **less trust in state institutions** than men of the same age.

Concluding the above, the following hypothesis is proposed:

H5: The gender gap in equality of opportunities (H5.1), **freedom of choice** (H5.2), **tolerance towards diversity** (H5.3) and **trust in state institutions** (H5.4) **is most pronounced for young people** and decreases with increase in age.

Several other individual factors can contribute to both the level of adherence to post-materialist values and the level of trust in the state. Among them are marital and parental status, education, income, living in urban or rural areas and religiosity. These factors are included in the analysis as control variables. Marital and parental status were found to be important factors explaining party attachment[131]. Considering the interconnection of values and party preferences, marital and parental status can contribute to the level of post-materialist values' adherence. One can expect married individuals, as well as those with children, to demonstrate lower adherence to post-materialist values, particularly in terms of freedom of choice and gender equality, because their roles often emphasize tradition and stability. Accordingly, this group can also be expected to have higher trust in state institutions. Moreover, religious people tend to embrace post-materialist values less often[132] and may have higher trust in state institutions that incorporate religious narratives into their agendas. In contrast, individuals with higher education and higher income, living in urban areas, are likely to embrace post-materialist values[133] and therefore have less trust in state institutions.

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[129] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[130] Ibid..
[131] Kittilson, Miki. 'Gender and Electoral Behavior', 27, 2018. https://doi.org/10.1057/978-1-137-59074-9_2.; Van Ditmars, Mathilde M, and Rosalind Shorrocks. 'Social Change and Women's Left Vote. The Role of Employment, Education, and Marriage in the Gender Vote Gap'. *Comparative Political Studies*, 2024, 00104140241271123.
[132] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.
[133] Pavlović, Zoran. 'Individual and Country Level Determinants of (Post) Materialist Values in Eastern Europe'. *European Quarterly of Political Attitudes and Mentalities* 4, no. 2 (2015): 1–11.

2.2. Measuring ideological gender gap

This part is devoted to explaining the concept of post-materialist or emancipatory values and the approach used to measure them. The formation of post-materialist values in individuals occurs primarily in the process of growing up and socialization in conditions of material and existential security[134]. Individuals who feel secure regarding material conditions, have an opportunity to shift attention from scarcity-oriented concerns to personal fulfillment and social justice[135].

Inglehart suggests measuring values on the following scales: 1) *Traditional values versus Secular-rational values* and 2) *Survival values versus Self-expression values*[136]. Traditional values emphasize "the importance of religion, parent-child ties, deference to authority and traditional family values"[137]. Societies where traditional values prevail, are characterized by conformity over individualistic striving, honoring authority figures, and high levels of national pride and a nationalistic worldview. Secular-rational values are opposed to traditional values respectively. Survival values prioritize economic and physical security, which are associated with "a relatively ethnocentric outlook and low levels of trust and tolerance"[138]. Self-expression values, on the contrary, emphasize "environmental protection, growing tolerance of foreigners, gays and lesbians and gender equality", as well as "rising demands for participation in decision-making in economic and political life"[139]. The *Survival values versus Self-expression values* scale is important for this work because it substantially mirrors the *materialist versus post-materialist values* dichotomy. Moreover, this scale most closely resembles ideological attitudes. This is supported by evidence that post-materialist values are associated with more left-leaning voting[140]. Thus, to study the gender gap in ideology self-expression values are taken as a basis.

Welzel develops the concept of post-materialist or self-expression values by proposing a model of emancipatory values that is claimed to be better grounded theoretically and has higher measurement validity[141]. This model includes four components: *autonomy, equality, choice and voice*[142]. *Autonomy* reflects prioritizing more independence and imagination and less importance of obedience in children.

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[134] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[135] Ibid..
[136] 'WVS Database'. Accessed 4 May 2025. https://www.worldvaluessurvey.org/WVSContents.jsp.
[137] Ibid..
[138] Ibid..
[139] Ibid..
[140] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.
[141] Welzel, Christian. Freedom Rising: Human Empowerment and the Quest for Emancipation. Cambridge University Press, 2013.
[142] Ibid..

Equality reflects gender equality with emphasis on education being equally important for boys and girls, women being as equal as men in political leadership, and women having the same rights when there is a shortage of jobs. *Choice* is measured by "how strongly people value freedom in their reproductive choices" based on the level of acceptance of divorce, abortion, and homosexuality[143]. *Voice* reflects to what extent individuals value "the voice of the people as a source of influence in their society"[144]. Respondents are asked about the importance of protecting freedom of speech, the ability to influence government decisions, and the state of affairs at their workplaces and in their communities[145]. The component of autonomy, given its operationalization, does not fit well in the context of ideology-based values. Voice, on the other hand, reflects important political values. However, this component is not included due to the large number of missing values in data on the required questions. Therefore, this study considers *equality of opportunities* and *freedom of choice* when investigating the gender gap in ideology.

At the same time, post-materialist values imply tolerance of outgroups, including foreigners and ethnically different people[146]. Welzel's model does not provide a component that captures this aspect. Therefore, I introduce this component independently: *tolerance towards diversity.* It reflects attitudes toward migrant workers, people who speak a different language, and people of a different ethnicity. In addition, *trust in state institutions* is considered in this paper. On the one hand, this is a crucial aspect when studying political values in Russia given the authoritarian context. On the other hand, in some sense, it substitutes Welzel's *voice* component. Thus, the development of factors and indicators is guided by both the theoretical framework and data availability. Below is a full list of factors and indicators included in the analysis.

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[143] Ibid., 67.
[144] Ibid..
[145] Ibid..
[146] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.

Equality of opportunities

- **Men are becoming better political leaders than women** (How strongly they agree with the statement) – measured on a scale of 4 (Strongly disagree) to 1 (Strongly agree)
- **Higher education is more important for boys** (How strongly they agree with the statement) – measured on a scale of 4 (Strongly disagree) to 1 (Strongly agree)
- **When workplaces are scarce, men should have more right to work** (How strongly they agree with the statement) – measured on a scale of 5 (Strongly disagree) to 1 (Strongly agree)

Freedom of choice

- **Homosexuality** (To what extent they can justify the action) – measured on a scale of 10 (Can always be justified) to 1 (Can never be justified)
- **Divorce** (To what extent they can justify the action) – measured on a scale of 10 (Can always be justified) to 1 (Can never be justified)
- **Abortion** (To what extent they can justify the action) – measured on a scale of 10 (Can always be justified) to 1 (Can never be justified)

Tolerance towards diversity

- **Labor migrants from other countries** (Attitude towards this group) – measured on a scale of 3 (Positive) to 1 (Negative)
- **People who speak a different language** (Attitude towards this group) – measured on a scale of 3 (Positive) to 1 (Negative)
- **People of other nationalities** (Attitude towards this group) – measured on a scale of 3 (Positive) to 1 (Negative)

Trust in state institutions

- **Elections** (How strongly they trust the institution) – measured on a scale of 4 (Trust completely) to 1 (Distrust completely)
- **Political parties** (How strongly they trust the institution) – measured on a scale of 4 (Trust completely) to 1 (Distrust completely)
- **President of Russia** (How strongly they trust the institution) – measured on a scale of 4 (Trust completely) to 1 (Distrust completely)

Regarding independent and control variables, operationalization is the following:

- **Age** (full years to the year of the survey)**:** divided by cohorts 25-34, 35-44, 45-54, 55-64, 65+
- **Gender**: 1 for female, 0 for male
- **Marital status:** 1 for married, living together but not registered, divorced or separated, widowed, 0 for single/unmarried and never been married
- **Parental status:** 1 for having at least one child, 0 for no children
- **Higher education:** 1 for completed higher education, 0 for all others[147]
- **Income** (the monetary income of the entire family for the last 30 days)**:** 1 for more than 100 thousand rubles, 0 for everything below 100 thousand rubles
- **Urban/ rural:** 1 for urban, 0 for rural
- **Religiosity:** 1 for religious, 0 for non-religious and atheists

2.3. Data and methods

This paper uses data from the R. Inglehart Laboratory for Comparative Social Research collected in 2019-2020 as part of the project "Value Transformation and Subjective Quality of Life: A Regional Perspective"[148]. This survey is based on the revised modernization theory[149] and the evolutionary theory of emancipation[150]. Accordingly, the survey format is based on the World Values Survey. The research covers 60 regions of Russia. The sample size is 18,768 respondents, with 500 respondents in Moscow and St. Petersburg and 300 in the remaining regions. Respondents living in the region as their primary residence for 3 months prior to the survey and aged 18 years or older were interviewed using telephone survey method. The data obtained as a result of the survey are representative of the 60 regions of Russia, as they closely reflect the structure of the population of each region according to the main socio-demographic and geographical parameters[151].

[147] Considering only completed higher education introduces certain limitations. Many respondents in the 18-24 age group may be in the process of obtaining their degrees. The attempt was made to address this problem. However, data on respondents still pursuing higher education contained a large number of missing values, which does not allow for further analysis.
[148] "Issledovatel'skie proekty". Accessed May 5, 2025. https://lcsr.hse.ru/proekty.
[149] Inglehart, Ronald, and Christian Welzel. Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy. The Human Development Sequence. Cambridge: Cambridge university press, 2005.
[150] Welzel, Christian. Freedom Rising: Human Empowerment and the Quest for Emancipation. Cambridge University Press, 2013.
[151] "Issledovatel'skie proekty". Accessed May 5, 2025. https://lcsr.hse.ru/proekty.

As a preliminary step, exploratory data analysis is conducted. Mann-Whitney tests are conducted for groups of young men and women aged 18-24 in order to check whether the samples, i.e. the average responses of these cohorts on certain questions reflecting values, differ from each other. Mann-Whitney test is used as the data are non-parametric according to the Shapiro-Wilk normality test. Further, confirmatory factor analysis is conducted to test the validity of the proposed model for measuring the ideological gender gap. The CFA model was run in the R program using the lavaan package. The MLR estimate was used to construct the model. Following this, factor scores were retained and used as dependent variables in multiple regressions. Thus, four multiple regressions with interaction effects of gender and age were constructed, with *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice, Tolerance towards diversity* and *Trust in state institutions* as dependent variables. All regression models were tested on multicollinearity, heteroscedasticity, presence of outliers and influential observations (Appendix 8-29). All necessary transformations have been performed in the case of problems identified. Also, *Freedom of choice, Tolerance towards diversity* and *Trust in state institutions* dependent variables were normalized using the powerTransform function (Appendix 1-7).

3. Results

To begin with, exploratory data analysis was conducted by employing Mann-Whitney tests to uncover significant differences between groups of young men and women aged 18-24. The results are presented in **Table 1**. The analysis revealed that young men and women differed significantly in their responses to at least one question in each section: *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice, Tolerance towards diversity and Trust in state institutions.* The lower the p-value, the more significant the difference between groups is considered to be. At the same time, the negative direction of the R indicator (rank biserial) indicates that women have higher ranks on the issue, while the positive direction demonstrates higher ranks of men.

In the ***Equality of opportunities*** section, the most significant differences (p-value < 0.01) are evident in agreement with the following statements: "Men are becoming better political leaders than women", "Higher education is more important for boys", "Women are equally capable as men in technical matters", "When workplaces are scarce, men should have more right to work". Women, on average, agreed less with these statements than men. At the same time, no significant difference was found in agreement with the statement "Housekeeping is equally the responsibility of both spouses". In the section on ***Tolerance towards diversity***, the significance of the differences was less pronounced (p-value < 0.05). Men, on average, demonstrate more positive attitudes towards people of other nationalities and speaking another language. At the same time, differences in attitudes towards labor migrants from other countries and trust in people of other nationalities were not found to be significant. In the ***Freedom of choice*** section, differences in justification of homosexuality were significant at p-value <0.01, demonstrating that women justified homosexuality more often than men. At lower significance (p-value <0.05), differences in justification of divorce were also found. Women more often justify this action. At the same time, no differences were found in justifying abortion. In the ***Trust in state institutions*** section, the difference in trust in political parties was revealed. At p-value < 0.05 it was found that women slightly more often trust political parties. At the same time, trust in the President of Russia and trust in elections revealed no differences.

To summarize, men and women aged 18-24 years old demonstrate significant differences in certain issues. Women are more likely to reject gender biases, such as male leadership in politics or higher importance of tertiary education for boys. Also, women demonstrate higher acceptance of homosexuality and divorce. Meanwhile, men show higher trust in people of other nationalities and those who speak a different language. Trust in institutions varies weakly, with the exception of political parties with women demonstrating trust more often.

Table 1. Mann-Whitney test results for groups of men and women aged 18-24.

Issue	W	P-value	R (rank biserial)	95% CI
Equality of opportunities ***(4 - strongly disagree, 1- strongly agree)***				
Men are becoming better political leaders than women	243011	**4.91e-12**	-0.19	[-0.25, -0.13]
Higher education is more important for boys	244899	**7.2e-12**	-0.18	[-0.24, -0.13]
Women are equally capable as men in technical matters	337633	**5.133e-06**	0.12	[0.07, 0.18]
Housekeeping is equally the responsibility of both spouses	294275	0.4567	-0.02	[-0.08, 0.04]
When workplaces are scarce, men should have more right to work	266892	**8.246e-05**	-0.11	[-0.17, -0.05]
Tolerance towards diversity ***(4 - positive/trust completely, 1 - negative/distrust completely)***				
Attitude towards people of other nationalities	282200	**0.0193**	0.06	[0.00, 0.12]
Attitude towards people speaking another language	317265	**0.02855**	0.06	[0.00, 0.11]
Attitudes towards labor migrants from other countries	305639	0.4758	0.02	[-0.04, 0.08]
Trust in people of other nationalities	310536	0.2157	0.03	[-0.02, 0.09]
Freedom of choice ***(10 - can always be justified, 1 - can never be justified)***				
Justification of abortion	306335	0.4806	0.02	[-0.04, 0.08]
Justification of divorce	280026	**0.01834**	-0.07	[-0.12, -0.01]
Justification of homosexuality	253180	**1.302e-08**	-0.16	[-0.21, -0.10]
Trust in state institutions ***(4 - trust completely, 1 - no trust at all)***				
Trust in the President of Russia	296431	0.6359	-0.01	[-0.07, 0.04]
Trust in elections	311236	0.1797	0.04	[-0.02, 0.09]
Trust in political parties	318211	**0.02936**	0.06	[0.00, 0.12]

3.1. Confirmatory factor analysis

After the exploratory step the confirmatory factor analysis was conducted. The results are presented in **Table 2**. The goodness-of-fit indices of the model are at a good level. CFI and TLI exceed the generally accepted minimum threshold of 0.95 (0.977 and 0.969, respectively). Also, RMSEA and SRMR are below the maximum threshold of 0.05 (0.028 and 0.023, respectively). Thus, the fit indices meet the requirements[152], indicating that the model is empirically relevant.

Table 2. CFA: Factor loadings and fit indices.

	Estimate (standardised)
Equality of opportunities	
Men are becoming better political leaders than women	0.884
Higher education is more important for boys	0.726
When workplaces are scarce, men should have more right to work	0.740
Freedom of choice	
Homosexuality	0.759
Divorce	0.529
Abortion	0.507
Tolerance towards diversity	
Labor migrants from other countries	0.617
People who speak a different language	0.375
People of other nationalities	0.359
Trust in state institutions	
Elections	0.755
Political parties	0.758
President of Russia	0.729
CFI	0.977
TLI	0.969
RMSEA	0.028
SRMR	0.023

[152] Sokolov, Boris. «Sensitivity of goodness of fit indices to lack of measurement invariance with categorical indicators and many groups». *Higher School of Economics Research Paper No. WP BRP* 86 (2019 г.).

Considering the factor loadings, *Equality of opportunities* and *Trust in state institutions* components look the most consistent, as all variables have rather high factor loadings (>0.7). At the same time, it is noticeable that the factor loadings are approximately equal between all variables. There are certain weaknesses with the remaining two factors. *Freedom of choice* has generally acceptable loadings (>0.05), although the variable on homosexuality acceptance has a noticeably stronger factor loading (>0.7). Substantially, the only problematic factor is *Tolerance towards diversity* as the two variables have rather low loadings (>0.35), although the variable on attitude towards labor migrants has a loading close to high (0.617). Concluding, despite the low factor loadings of two variables, the other loadings are acceptable or high. Also, the goodness-of-fit indices of the model are at a good level. It can be considered that the factor model is generally relevant.

3.2. Regression analysis

This part presents the results of regression analysis (see **Table 3**), where the obtained factor scores were used as dependent variables. Four regression models were built with an interaction effect between gender and age. The 18-24 age cohort is used as a reference category. Thus, the estimates for each age cohort show a difference compared to the reference group. Also, the variable *Gender:female* reflects the difference between women and men only in the reference group (18-24 years) because it is included in the interaction.

The gender effect on *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* in the young cohort aged 18-24 is observed. Young women have on average 0.122 units higher in *Equality of opportunities* and 0.094 units higher in *Freedom of choice* than men under other conditions being equal, and these differences are statistically significant at the $p < 0.01$ level. Also, women on average 0.112 units higher *Tolerance towards diversity* than men under other conditions being equal, and these differences are statistically significant at the $p < 0.05$ level. However, no gender effect on *Trust in state institutions* is found. Thus, the hypothesis that young women in Russia tend to have more post-materialist values than men of the same age, more often prioritizing *Equality of opportunities*, *Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* **(H2) is confirmed.** Meanwhile, young women in Russia were not found to have less *Trust in state institutions* than men of the same age (H4).

The generational effect on *Equality of opportunities* and *Trust in state institutions* is well observed. Adherence to *Equality of opportunities* is lower in 55-64 and 65+ age cohorts with statistical significance at the $p < 0.1$ and $p < 0.05$ levels correspondingly. Also, *Trust in state institutions* gradually increases with increasing age, while the average *Trust in state institutions* among the young cohort 18-24 is lower compared to all cohorts. It can also be observed that the adherence to *Freedom of choice* is lower in all age cohorts compared to the aged 18-24 group. At the same time, a linear

relationship of this component with age cannot be seen. The greatest estimates are in the cohort 25-34 (-0.119) and the cohort 65+ (-0.155). That is, there is a rather U-shaped relationship of *Freedom of choice* with age. However, the cohort of young people aged 18-24 still is the most progressive in terms of *Freedom of choice* in comparison with all other age groups. In contrast, *Tolerance towards diversity* is unexpectedly higher among older cohorts. Cohorts aged 55-64 and 65+ have on average 0.159 and 0.048 units higher in *Tolerance towards diversity* under other conditions being equal, and these differences are statistically significant at the $p < 0.01$ level. Thus, the hypothesis that young people in Russia tend to have more post-materialist values than older generations **(H1) is partially confirmed.** Young people are likely to more often prioritize *Equality of opportunities* **(H1.1)** and *Freedom of choice* **(H1.2)**. At the same time, contrary to expected results, young people are not likely to be more *tolerant towards diversity* than older generations (H1.3). Also, the hypothesis that young people in Russia tend to have less *Trust in state institutions* than older generations **is confirmed (H3).**

The intensity of the gender gap is found to vary across age cohorts. In terms of *Equality of opportunities*, the gender gap is most pronounced for the young cohort aged 18-24. At the same time, as age increases, the gender gap gradually diminishes. Also, non-linear dynamics of the gender gap in *Freedom of choice* is noticeable. Although people aged 18-24 are more likely to adhere to *Freedom of choice* values in comparison with all other age groups, the gender gap is most pronounced at ages 25-54, decreasing by 55-65+ years, showing no statistically significant difference in the intensity of the gender gap from the reference group. As for *Tolerance towards diversity*, the gender gap completely disappears by the age of 25-34 years, and further the difference with the reference group is not statistically significant. In *Trust in state institutions*, the gender gap among young people is not observed, and the same trend remains for all other cohorts. Thus, the hypothesis that the gender gap in values is most pronounced for the 18-24 age cohort and decreases with increase in age is **partially confirmed (H5)**. This dynamic is evidenced in *Equality of opportunities* **(H5.1)**. However, the gender gap in *Freedom of choice* (H5.2) and *Tolerance towards diversity* (H5.3) do not follow this pattern. Meanwhile, the gender gap in *Trust in state institutions* (H5.4) is not observed across all age cohorts.

Table 3. Multiple linear regressions with the interaction effect of gender and age.

	Equality of opportunities	Freedom of choice	Tolerance towards diversity	Trust in state institutions
(Intercept)	0.004	0.022	-0.003	-0.026
Gender: female	0.122 ***	0.094 ***	0.112 **	-0.024
Age: 25-34	-0.001	-0.119 ***	-0.072 .	0.064 ***
Age: 35-44	-0.001	-0.092 ***	-0.018	0.065 ***
Age: 45-54	-0.001	-0.070 **	0.075 .	0.107 ***
Age: 55-64	-0.029 *	-0.067 **	0.159 ***	0.144 ***
Age: 65+	-0.098 ***	-0.155 ***	0.048 ***	0.153 ***
Gender (female): Age (25-34)	-0.028 .	0.070 **	-0.115 *	-0.046 .
Gender (female): Age (35-44)	-0.037 *	0.063 *	-0.080	-0.025
Gender (female): Age (45-54)	-0.033 *	0.064 *	-0.055	-0.040
Gender (female): Age (55-64)	-0.062 ***	0.020	-0.080	-0.022
Gender (female): Age (65+)	-0.054 **	0.051 .	0.056	0.024
Marital status: not single	-0.033 ***	-0.056 ***	-0.076 **	-0.003
Parental status	-0.018 *	-0.053 ***	0.016	0.009
Higher education	0.054 ***	0.069 ***	0.011	-0.012 .
Urban	0.044 ***	0.099 ***	-0.113 ***	-0.033 ***
Religiosity	-0.061 ***	-0.134 ***	0.132 ***	0.030 ***
Family monthly income: 100.000 ₽ +	0.022 ***	0.073 ***	0.017	-0.010
Observations	12 076	12 076	12 076	12 076
R-squared	0.096	0.103	0.035	0.033
Adjusted R-squared	0.095	0.101	0.034	0.032

Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***<0.01

Considering control variables, it can be observed that individuals not being single/unmarried and those having children with high self-declared religiosity are on average less likely to support *Equality of opportunities* and *Freedom of choice*. In contrast, respondents with higher education, living in urban areas and having monthly family income above 100 thousand rubles are more inclined to support *Equality of opportunities* and *Freedom of choice.* At the same time, the situation with *Tolerance towards diversity* and *Trust in state institutions* is rather more complex. Marital status (not being single/unmarried) is associated with lower *Tolerance towards diversity,* while having no relationship with *Trust in state institutions*. Living in urban areas is expectedly associated with lower *Trust in state institutions,* but also connected with lower *Tolerance towards diversity.* In contrast, higher religiosity is associated with higher *Tolerance towards diversity,* and expectedly with higher *Trust in state institutions.* Parental status, higher education and monthly family income were not found statistically significant when explaining *Tolerance towards diversity* and *Trust in state institutions.*

Discussion and conclusions

The so-called ideological gender gap, which originally appeared in Western democracies, has recently been discovered in other countries as well. Therefore, the aim of this study was to test whether this trend has reached Russia. It is assumed that the younger generation holds more progressive views, but the shift towards these values is more rapid among women, thus forming a gender gap in ideology[153]. Accordingly, in order to assess whether this trend is relevant for Russia, the following points were tested: the generational effect, the gender effect within the young cohort and the intensity of the gender gap among different age cohorts.

The study presents curious findings. First, exploratory data analysis revealed significant differences between groups of young men and women aged 18-24 in answers towards at least one question in each section: *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice, Tolerance towards diversity* and *Trust in state institutions*. Second, the results of regression analysis partially or fully confirmed the proposed hypotheses. A significant **gender effect** on *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* in the young cohort aged 18-24 was found. Young women in Russia are indeed more likely to hold views that support gender equality and justify divorce, abortion, homosexuality. Also, young women are more likely to be tolerant of outgroups such as migrant workers compared to their male counterparts. At the same time, no gender gap in trust in state institutions was found. A significant **generational effect** is also observed. Young people more often give preference to *Equality of opportunities* and *Freedom of choice* compared to the older cohort. Also, they tend to have less *Trust in state institutions* than older generations. In contrast, *Tolerance towards diversity* is unexpectedly higher among older generations. Thus, the expected generational effect is noticeable for *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice* and *Trust in state institutions.* The generally accepted dynamics of the gender gap in ideology suggests that the gap is most pronounced among the young cohort and that the gender gap gradually decreases with increasing age. As for the **intensity of the gender gap** in Russia, this trend is relevant for *Equality of opportunities*. The gender gap in *Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* does not conform to this pattern. At the same time, the gender gap in *Trust in public institutions* is not observed in all age cohorts.

Thus, the gender gap in *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice and Tolerance towards diversity* among people aged 18-24 is evident in Russia. The gap in *Equality of opportunities* aligns well with the trend originated from the West. The gap gradually decreases for older cohorts and thus is most pronounced among the young generation. Thus, this is consistent with Inglehart and Norris' findings

[153] Inglehart, Ronald, and Pippa Norris. 'The Developmental Theory of the Gender Gap: Women's and Men's Voting Behavior in Global Perspective'. International Political Science Review 21, no. 4 (October 2000): 441–63. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512100214007.

about most post-industrial countries[154]. At the same time, it complements the study on Poland[155], providing more evidence of the gender gap in values being relevant for post-communist countries. Meanwhile, *Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* do not fit into this logic or fit with some reservations. This is an interesting finding, since all values studied belong to post-materialist or emancipatory values, which are commonly assumed to be related to each other. However, this does not seem to be the case in Russia. Two particularly curious findings challenge the existing theoretical foundation. First, people 55-64 years old turned out to be the most tolerant towards diversity, meaning people of a different nationality, people speaking a different language and labor migrants. This is contrary to a number of Western studies showing that post-materialist values as a whole are higher among young people[156]. This might be explained by older generations socializing in an environment where Soviet internationalism was promoted. Another explanation could be that tolerance for outgroups is related to loyalty to the state, i.e. supporting migration policy. A similar explanation was put forward by Shcherbak, explaining the greater tolerance for migrants among conservative women[157]. Second, women's greater commitment to post-materialist values is not associated with less trust in state institutions, contrary to theoretical expectations. The results are inconsistent with the Inglehart and Welzel's suggestion that adherence to post-materialist values is associated with a more critical attitude toward authorities in non-democratic context[158]. It may be assumed that *Equality of opportunities, Freedom of choice* and *Tolerance towards diversity* are perceived as a "personal matter" and in a certain way perceived as non-politicized values. Therefore, supporting these values does not transform into distrust towards state institutions. These are the research puzzles that have yet to be solved.

To conclude, this study makes an important contribution to the research field by introducing the lens of the gender gap in the study of values in Russia. It suggests that young men and women in Russia have different views on gender equality, the justification of abortion, divorce and homosexuality, as well as tolerance towards outgroups. At the same time, in accordance with theoretical implications the gap in gender equality attitudes is narrowing with increasing age. Future research can address research puzzles identified in this study, as well as test modernization theory for other values, including policy preferences.

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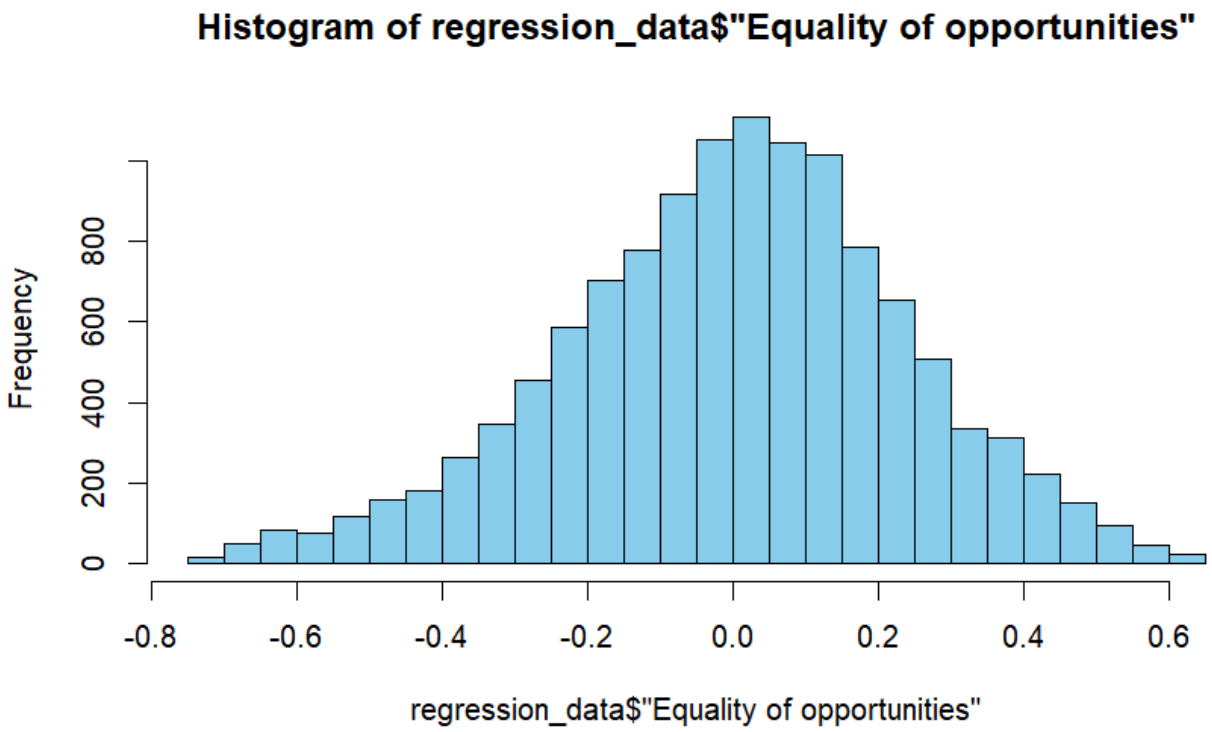
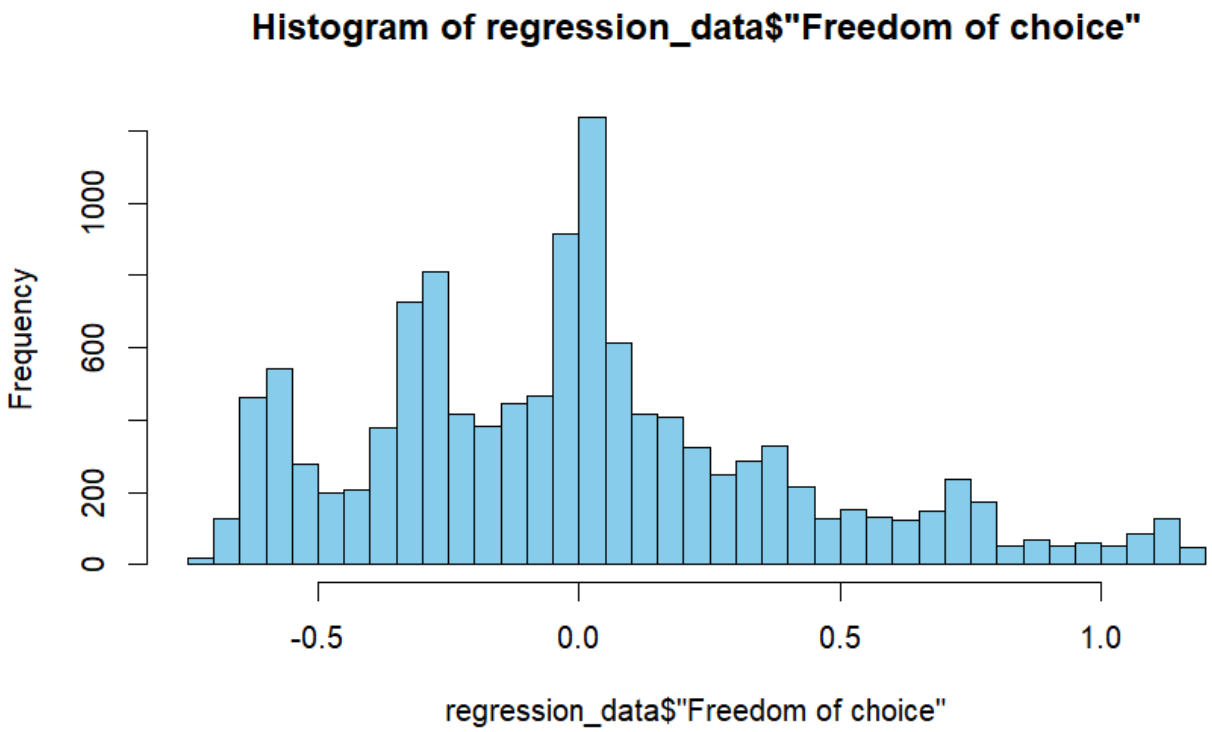
Appendix

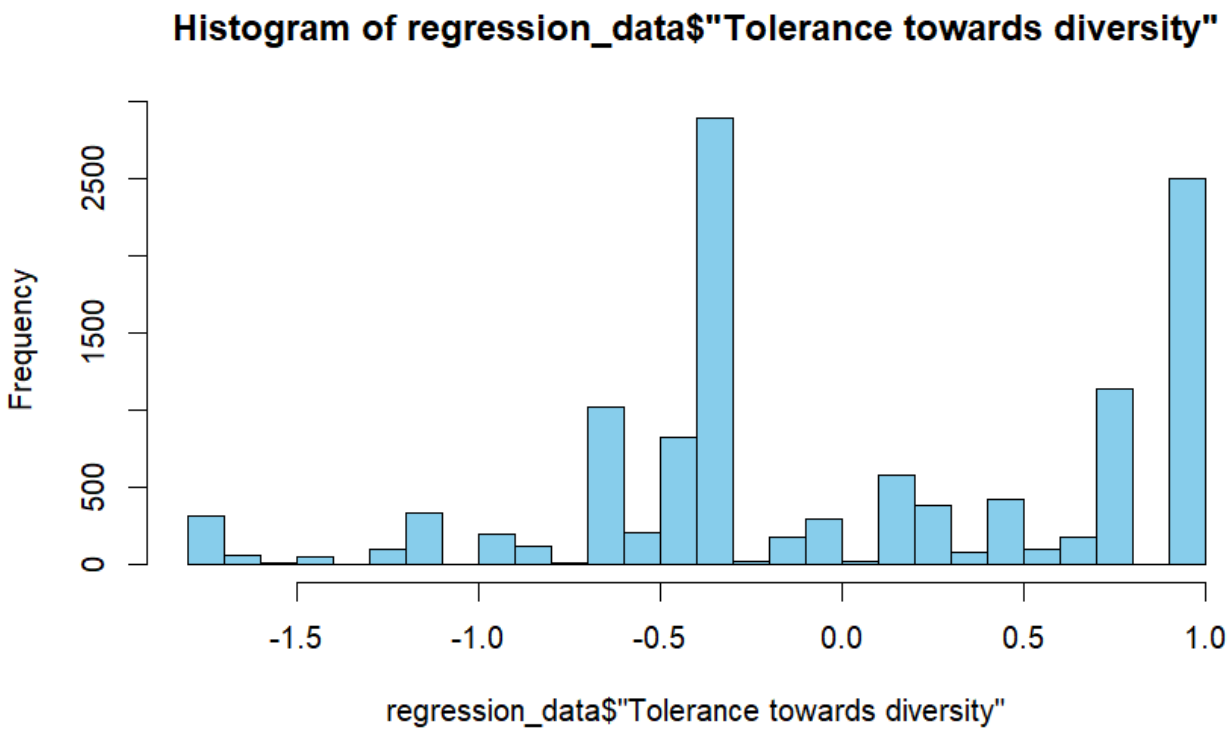
Appendix 1 The graph of *Equality of opportunities* distribution



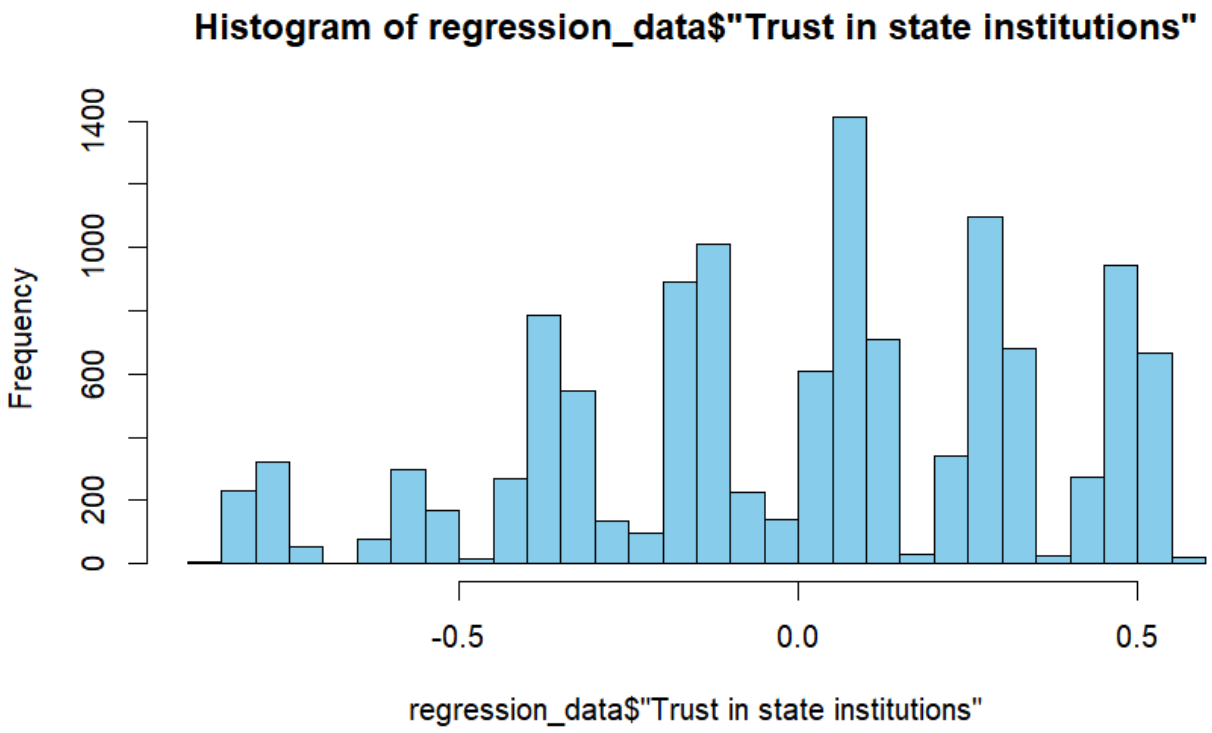
Appendix 2 The graph of *Freedom of choice* distribution



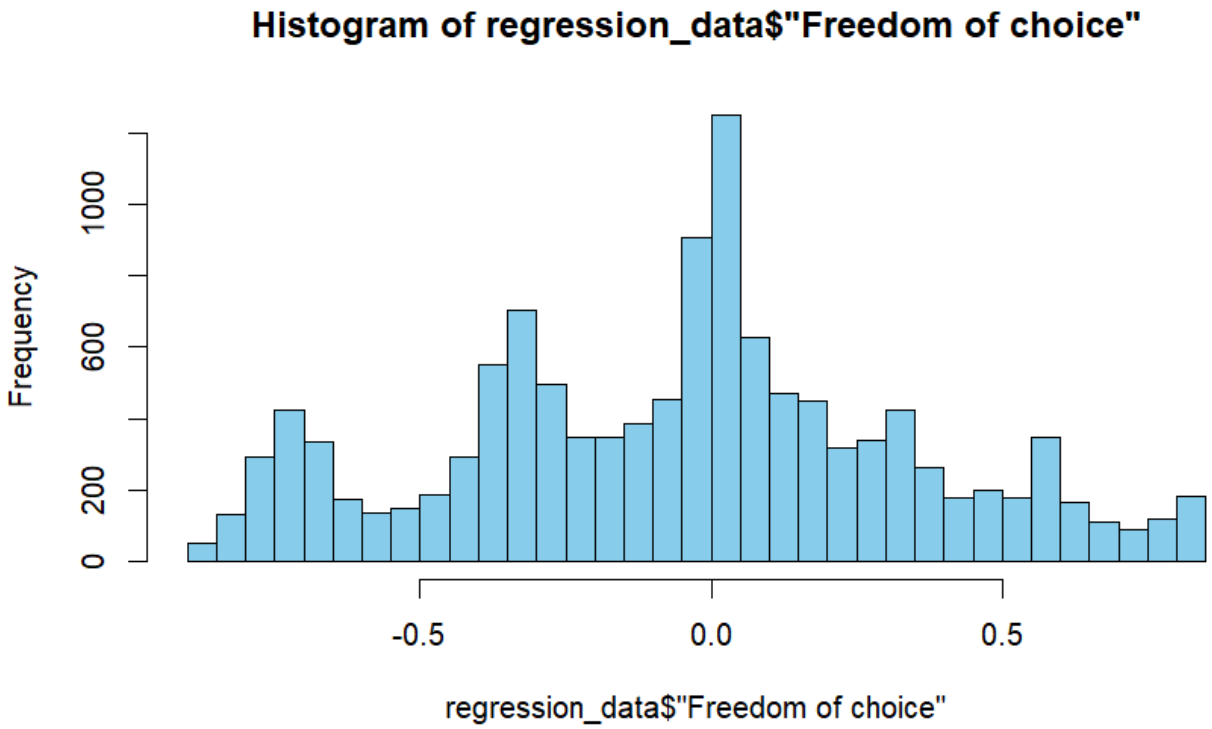
Appendix 3 The graph of *Tolerance towards diversity* distribution



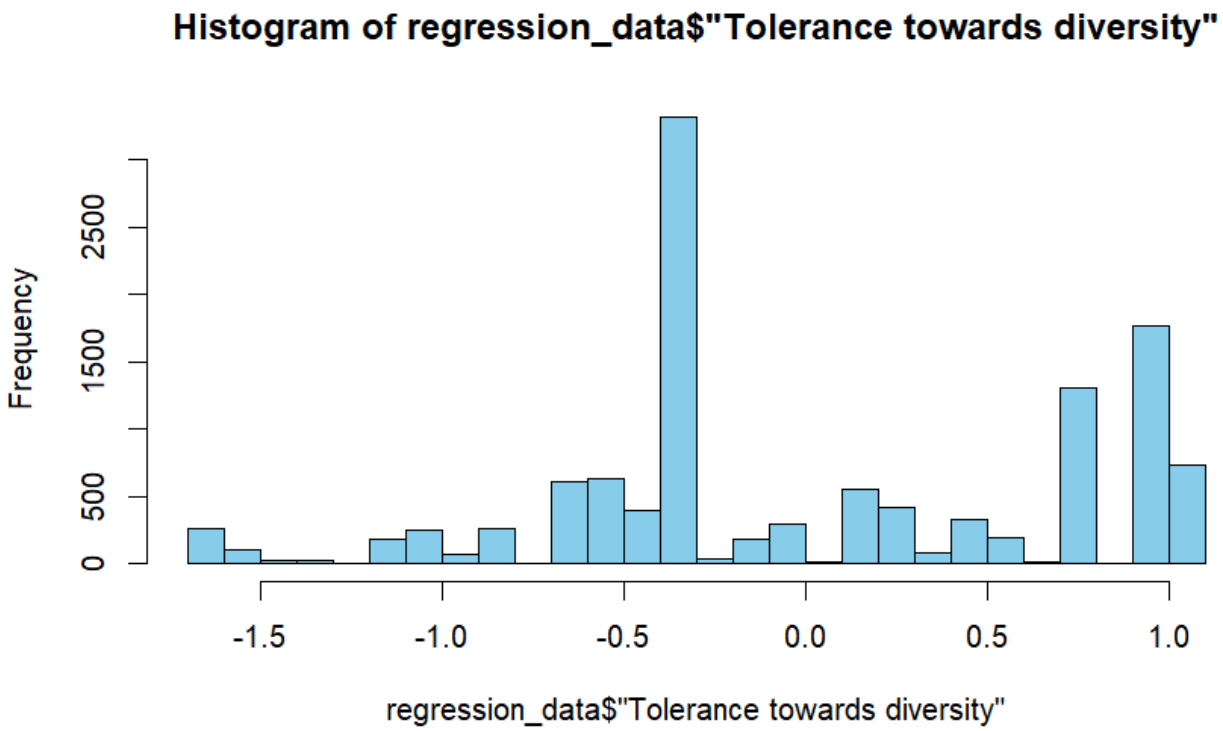
Appendix 4 The graph of *Trust in state institutions* distribution



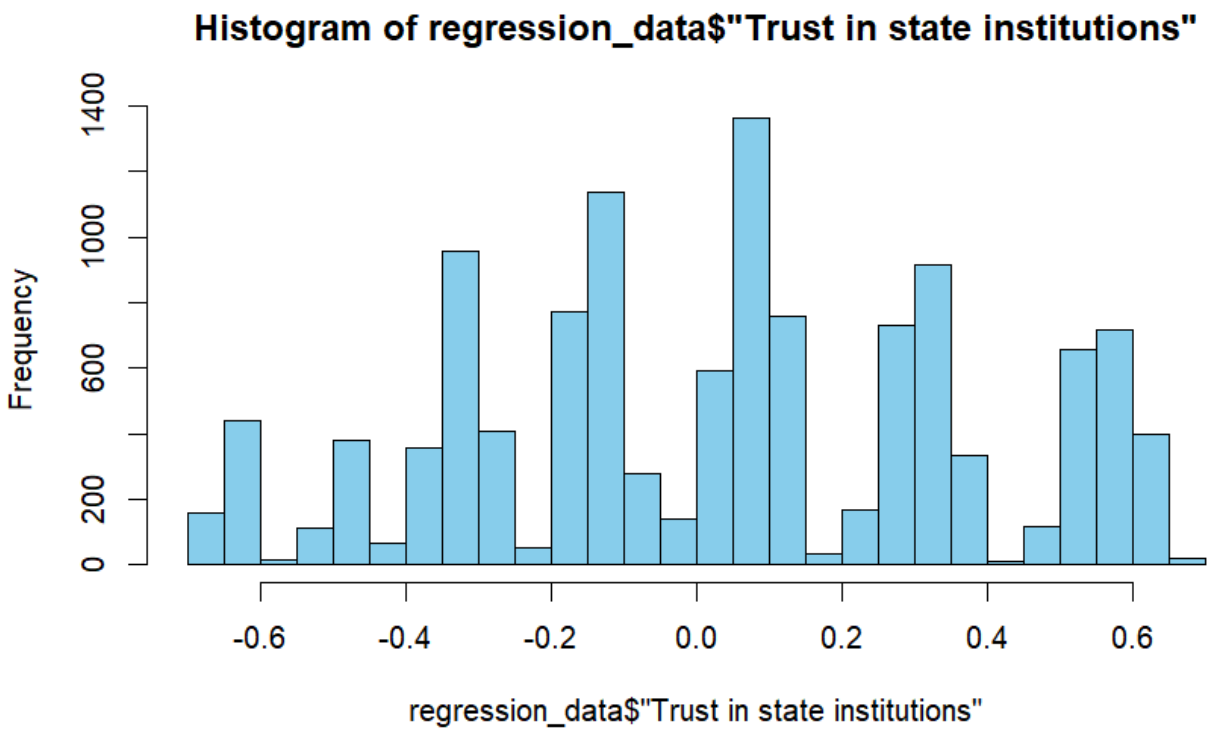
Appendix 5 The graph of *Freedom of choice* distribution after powerTransform



Appendix 6 The graph of *Tolerance towards diversity* distribution after powerTransform



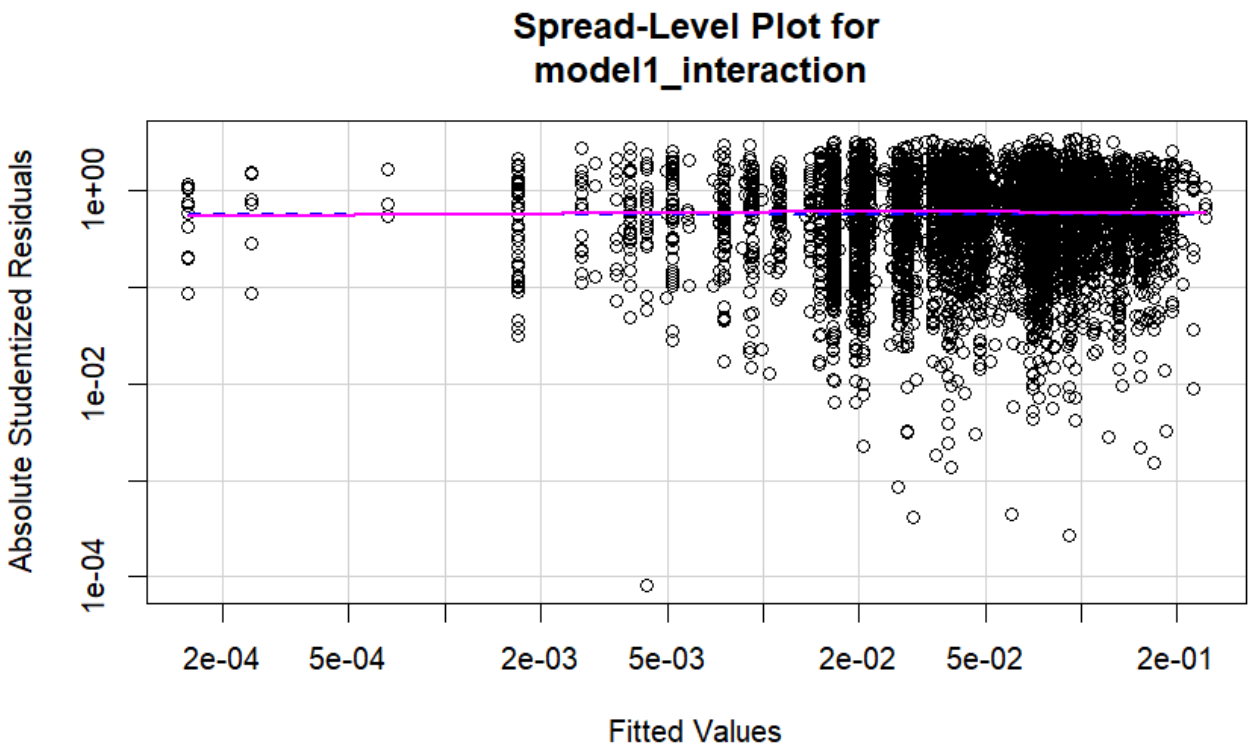
Appendix 7 The graph of *Trust in state institutions* distribution after powerTransform



Appendix 8 Test for multicollinearity, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities

	GVIF <dbl>	Df <dbl>	GVIF^(1/(2*Df)) <dbl>	Interacts With <chr>
marital_status	1.827938	1	1.352013	--
children	2.000332	1	1.414331	--
education	1.083230	1	1.040783	--
urban	1.043117	1	1.021331	--
religiosity	1.049211	1	1.024310	--
income	1.067380	1	1.033141	--
gender	1.907733	11	1.029795	age_cohort
age_cohort	1.907733	11	1.029795	gender

Appendix 9 Test for heteroscedasticity, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities



Appendix 10 Regression table with fixed heteroscedasticity, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities

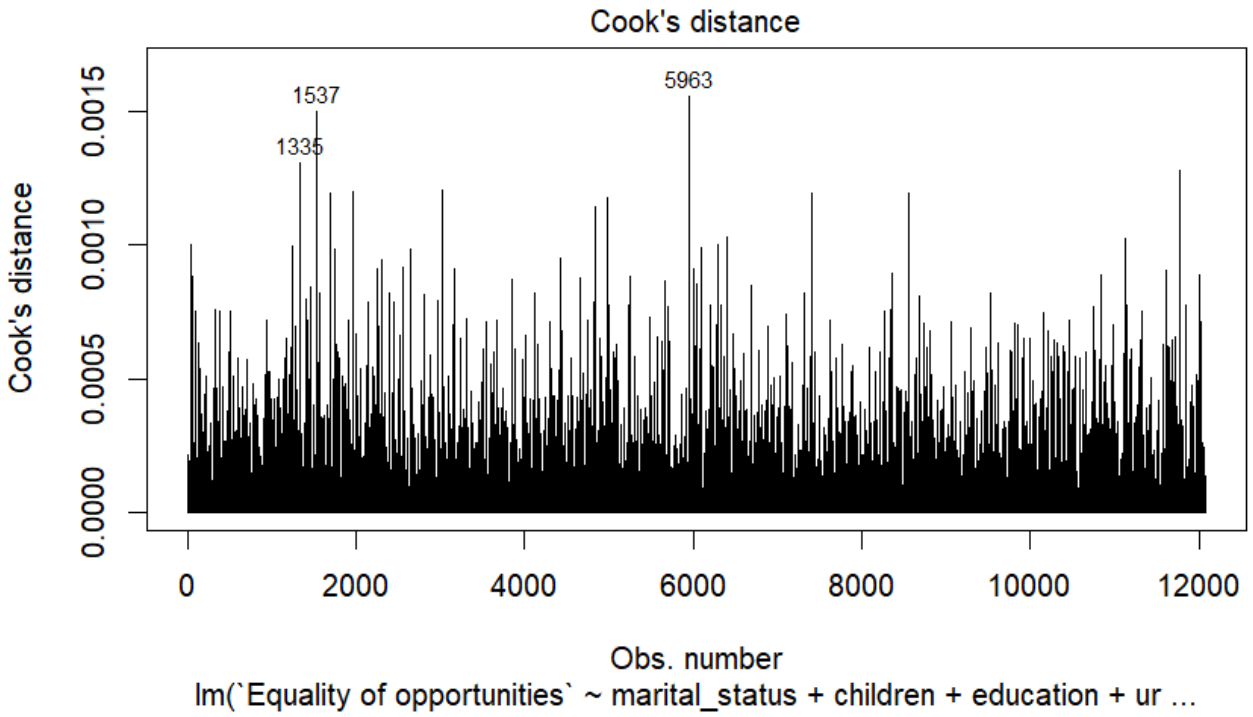
```
t test of coefficients:

                         Estimate Std. Error  t value  Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)             0.0042887  0.0118559   0.3617 0.7175540
marital_status         -0.0327284  0.0082881  -3.9489 7.897e-05 ***
children               -0.0182908  0.0072630  -2.5184 0.0118031 *
education               0.0535640  0.0045311  11.8215 < 2.2e-16 ***
urban                   0.0435823  0.0047267   9.2205 < 2.2e-16 ***
religiosity            -0.0610988  0.0043526 -14.0375 < 2.2e-16 ***
income                  0.0223287  0.0058258   3.8327 0.0001274 ***
gender                  0.1218946  0.0144584   8.4307 < 2.2e-16 ***
age_cohort25-34        -0.0099498  0.0136124  -0.7309 0.4648353
age_cohort35-44        -0.0041330  0.0142152  -0.2907 0.7712530
age_cohort45-54        -0.0078422  0.0146366  -0.5358 0.5921115
age_cohort55-64        -0.0289143  0.0152062  -1.9015 0.0572620 .
age_cohort65+          -0.0977890  0.0168610  -5.7997 6.809e-09 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34 -0.0280997  0.0168919  -1.6635 0.0962383 .
gender:age_cohort35-44 -0.0367853  0.0170792  -2.1538 0.0312744 *
gender:age_cohort45-54 -0.0331747  0.0175218  -1.8933 0.0583365 .
gender:age_cohort55-64 -0.0615795  0.0177163  -3.4759 0.0005110 ***
gender:age_cohort65+   -0.0539353  0.0193003  -2.7945 0.0052056 **
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1
```

Appendix 11 Test for outliers, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities

	rstudent	unadjusted p-value	Bonferroni p
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>
2297	-3.468136	0.00052591	*NA*

Appendix 12 Test for influential observations, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities



Appendix 13 Regression table with fixed heteroscedasticity and omitted outlier, Model 1 – Equality of opportunities

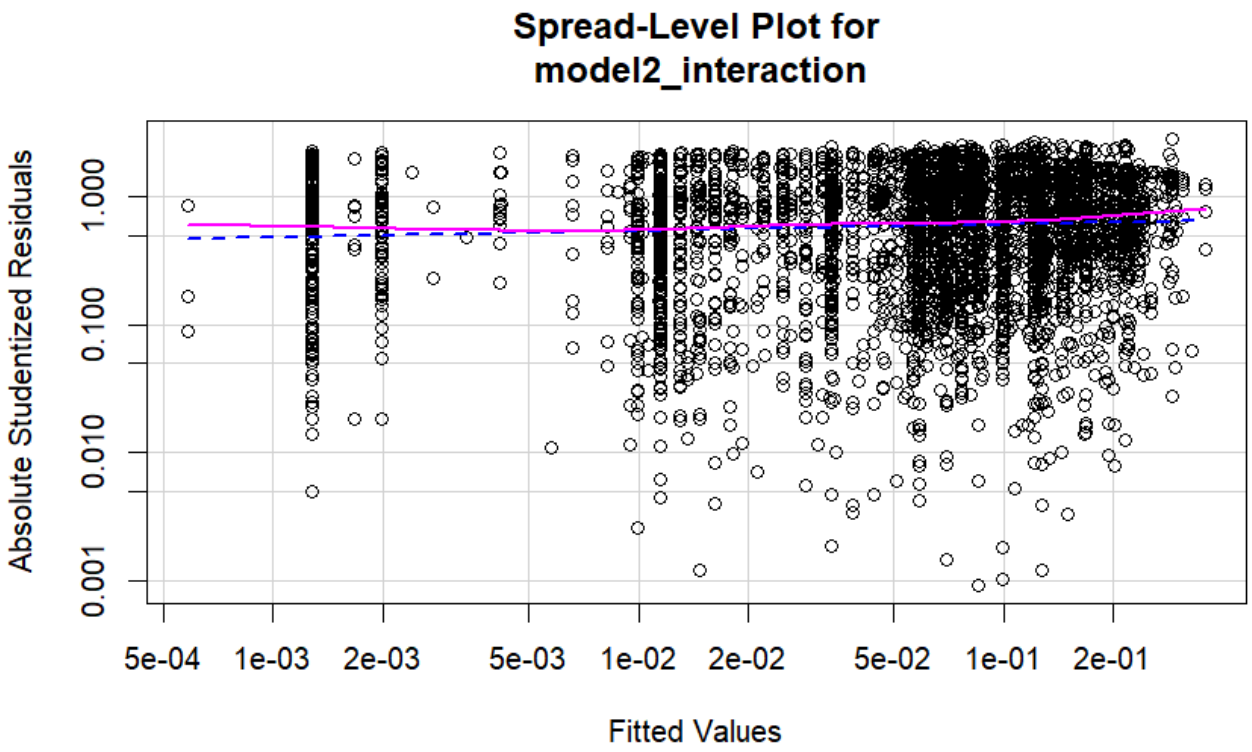
```
t test of coefficients:

                         Estimate Std. Error  t value  Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)             0.0041081  0.0118550   0.3465 0.7289528
marital_status         -0.0327340  0.0082881  -3.9495 7.875e-05 ***
children               -0.0181623  0.0072617  -2.5011 0.0123930 *
education               0.0536991  0.0045294  11.8558 < 2.2e-16 ***
urban                   0.0436252  0.0047265   9.2300 < 2.2e-16 ***
religiosity            -0.0610040  0.0043517 -14.0185 < 2.2e-16 ***
income                  0.0227365  0.0058137   3.9108 9.249e-05 ***
gender                  0.1218918  0.0144592   8.4301 < 2.2e-16 ***
age_cohort25-34        -0.0100581  0.0136125  -0.7389 0.4599899
age_cohort35-44        -0.0042888  0.0142150  -0.3017 0.7628783
age_cohort45-54        -0.0079649  0.0146364  -0.5442 0.5863245
age_cohort55-64        -0.0290061  0.0152064  -1.9075 0.0564807 .
age_cohort65+          -0.0978742  0.0168613  -5.8047 6.612e-09 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34 -0.0274989  0.0168833  -1.6288 0.1033899
gender:age_cohort35-44 -0.0367987  0.0170799  -2.1545 0.0312205 *
gender:age_cohort45-54 -0.0331736  0.0175224  -1.8932 0.0583532 .
gender:age_cohort55-64 -0.0615871  0.0177170  -3.4762 0.0005104 ***
gender:age_cohort65+   -0.0539357  0.0193010  -2.7945 0.0052069 **
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1
```

Appendix 14 Test for multicollinearity, Model 2 – Freedom of choice

	GVIF	Df	GVIF^(1/(2*Df))	Interacts With
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>	<chr>
marital_status	1.827913	1	1.352003	--
children	2.000341	1	1.414334	--
education	1.083115	1	1.040728	--
urban	1.043092	1	1.021319	--
religiosity	1.049197	1	1.024303	--
income	1.067310	1	1.033107	--
gender	1.907663	11	1.029793	age_cohort
age_cohort	1.907663	11	1.029793	gender

Appendix 15 Test for heteroscedasticity, Model 2 – Freedom of choice



Appendix 16 Regression table with fixed heteroscedasticity, Model 2 – Freedom of choice

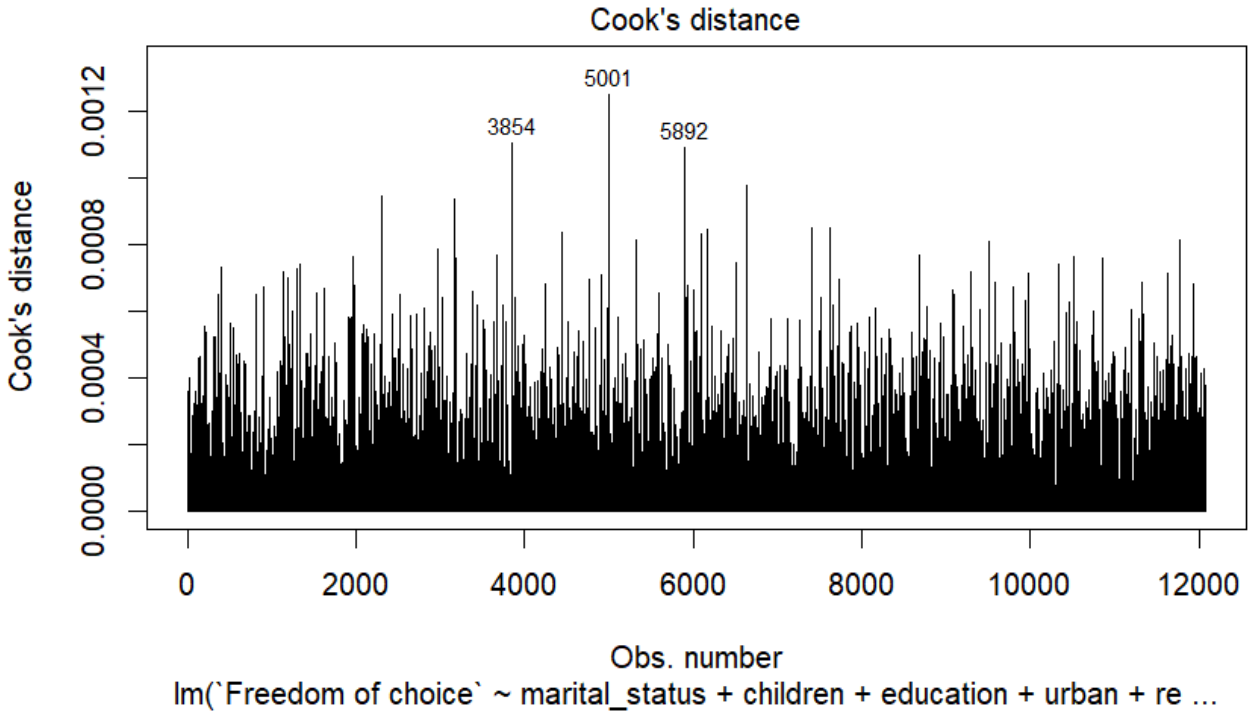
```
t test of coefficients:

                         Estimate Std. Error  t value  Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)             0.0220457  0.0197620   1.1156 0.2646332
marital_status         -0.0562721  0.0138815  -4.0537 5.072e-05 ***
children               -0.0532559  0.0123438  -4.3144 1.613e-05 ***
education               0.0686839  0.0074166   9.2609 < 2.2e-16 ***
urban                   0.0988613  0.0078070  12.6631 < 2.2e-16 ***
religiosity            -0.1339204  0.0072355 -18.5089 < 2.2e-16 ***
income                  0.0734557  0.0096572   7.6063 3.030e-14 ***
gender                  0.0940658  0.0257170   3.6577 0.0002555 ***
age_cohort25-34        -0.1189357  0.0226833  -5.2433 1.604e-07 ***
age_cohort35-44        -0.0921060  0.0237104  -3.8846 0.0001030 ***
age_cohort45-54        -0.0701204  0.0241446  -2.9042 0.0036887 **
age_cohort55-64        -0.0670686  0.0247153  -2.7136 0.0066641 **
age_cohort65+          -0.1551752  0.0270236  -5.7422 9.571e-09 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34  0.0697205  0.0299075   2.3312 0.0197588 *
gender:age_cohort35-44  0.0633509  0.0298261   2.1240 0.0336896 *
gender:age_cohort45-54  0.0635279  0.0301357   2.1081 0.0350464 *
gender:age_cohort55-64  0.0203836  0.0299210   0.6812 0.4957284
gender:age_cohort65+    0.0510019  0.0320953   1.5891 0.1120699
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1
```

Appendix 17 Test for outliers, Model 2 – Freedom of choice

	rstudent	unadjusted p-value	Bonferroni p
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>
3854	-2.847233	0.0044176	*NA*

Appendix 18 Test for influential observations, Model 2 – Freedom of choice



Appendix 19 Regression table with fixed heteroscedasticity and omitted outlier, Model 2 – Freedom of choice

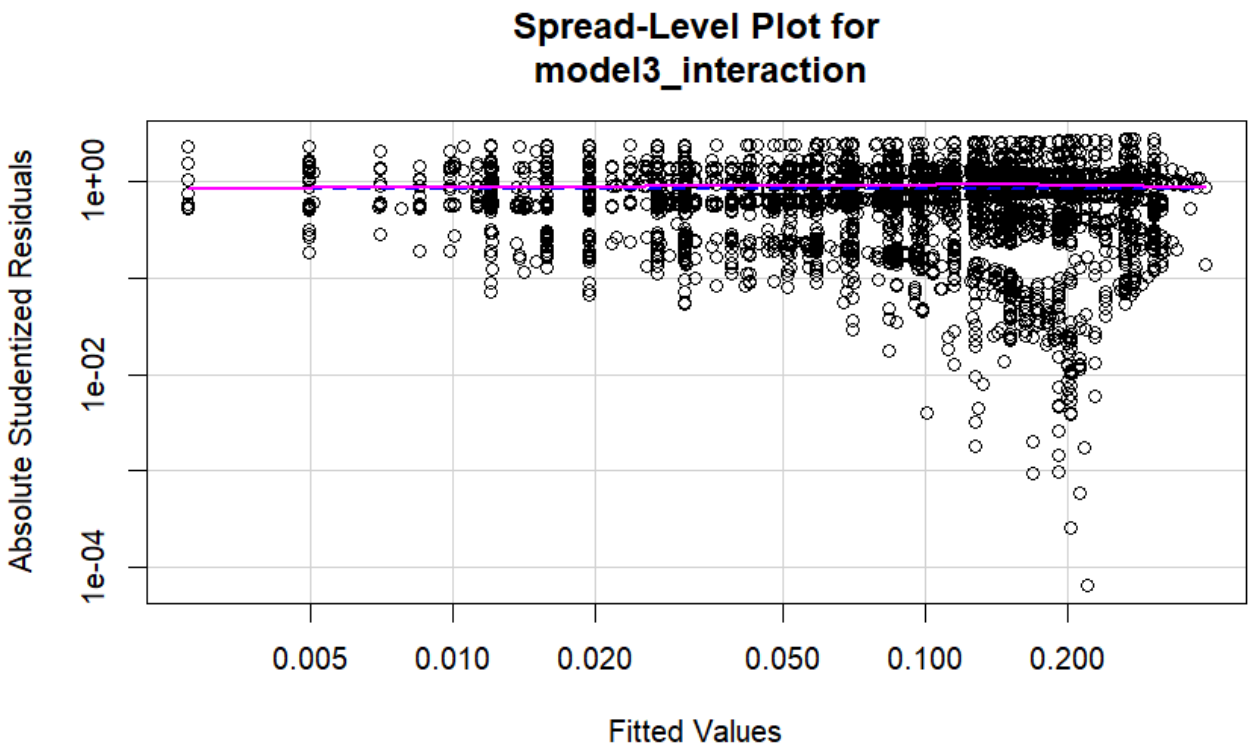
```
t test of coefficients:

                         Estimate Std. Error  t value  Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)             0.0221381  0.0197622   1.1202 0.2626416
marital_status         -0.0562633  0.0138815  -4.0531 5.086e-05 ***
children               -0.0532257  0.0123439  -4.3119 1.631e-05 ***
education               0.0686273  0.0074169   9.2528 < 2.2e-16 ***
urban                   0.0987440  0.0078084  12.6458 < 2.2e-16 ***
religiosity            -0.1339962  0.0072362 -18.5175 < 2.2e-16 ***
income                  0.0736441  0.0096598   7.6238 2.648e-14 ***
gender                  0.0940755  0.0257168   3.6581 0.0002551 ***
age_cohort25-34        -0.1189384  0.0226831  -5.2435 1.602e-07 ***
age_cohort35-44        -0.0918274  0.0237129  -3.8725 0.0001083 ***
age_cohort45-54        -0.0701488  0.0241445  -2.9054 0.0036748 **
age_cohort55-64        -0.0670984  0.0247153  -2.7149 0.0066400 **
age_cohort65+          -0.1551914  0.0270237  -5.7428 9.538e-09 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34  0.0697257  0.0299073   2.3314 0.0197489 *
gender:age_cohort35-44  0.0630659  0.0298281   2.1143 0.0345091 *
gender:age_cohort45-54  0.0635454  0.0301356   2.1086 0.0349954 *
gender:age_cohort55-64  0.0204059  0.0299209   0.6820 0.4952553
gender:age_cohort65+    0.0510271  0.0320953   1.5899 0.1118917
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1
```

Appendix 20 Test for multicollinearity, Model 3 – Tolerance towards diversity

	GVIF	Df	GVIF^(1/(2*Df))	Interacts With
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>	<chr>
marital_status	1.827889	1	1.351994	--
children	2.000313	1	1.414324	--
education	1.083149	1	1.040744	--
urban	1.043157	1	1.021351	--
religiosity	1.049211	1	1.024310	--
income	1.067321	1	1.033112	--
gender	1.907536	11	1.029790	age_cohort
age_cohort	1.907536	11	1.029790	gender

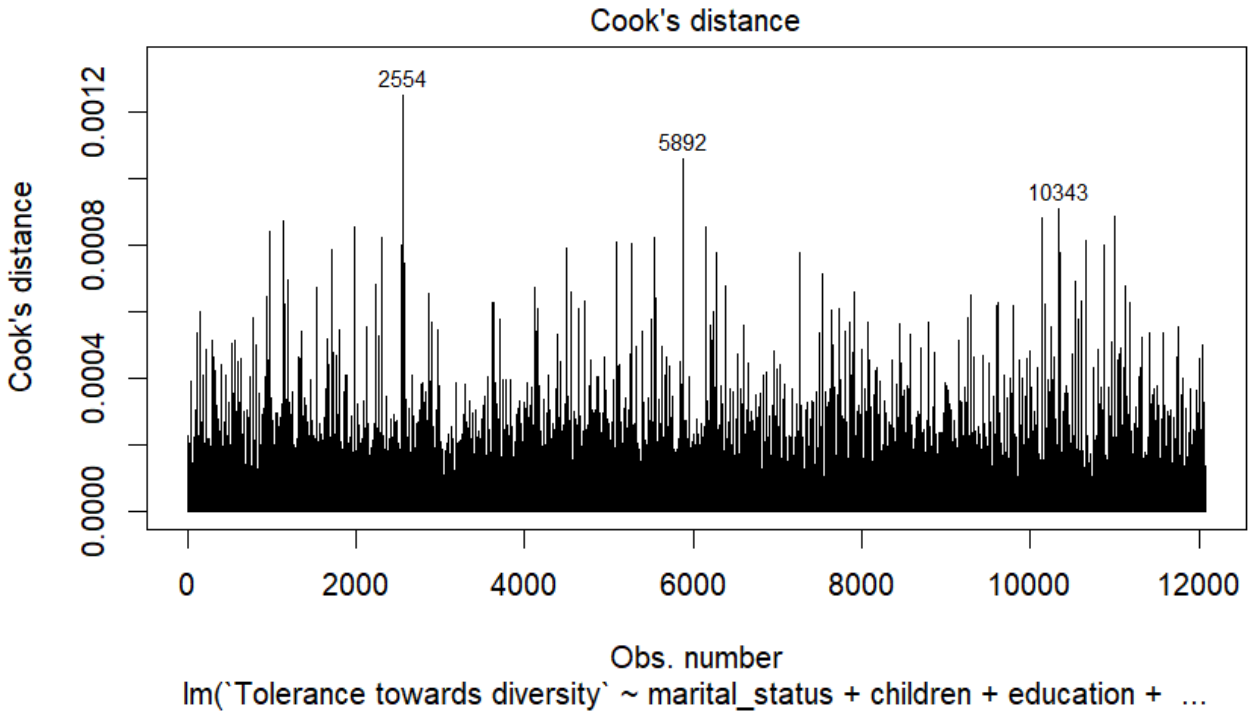
Appendix 21 Test for heteroscedasticity, Model 3 – Tolerance towards diversity



Appendix 22 Test for outliers, Model 3 – Tolerance towards diversity

	rstudent	unadjusted p-value	Bonferroni p
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>
4943	-2.736969	0.0062099	*NA*

Appendix 23 Test for influential observations, Model 3 – Tolerance towards diversity



Appendix 24 Regression table with omitted outlier, Model 3 – Tolerance towards diversity

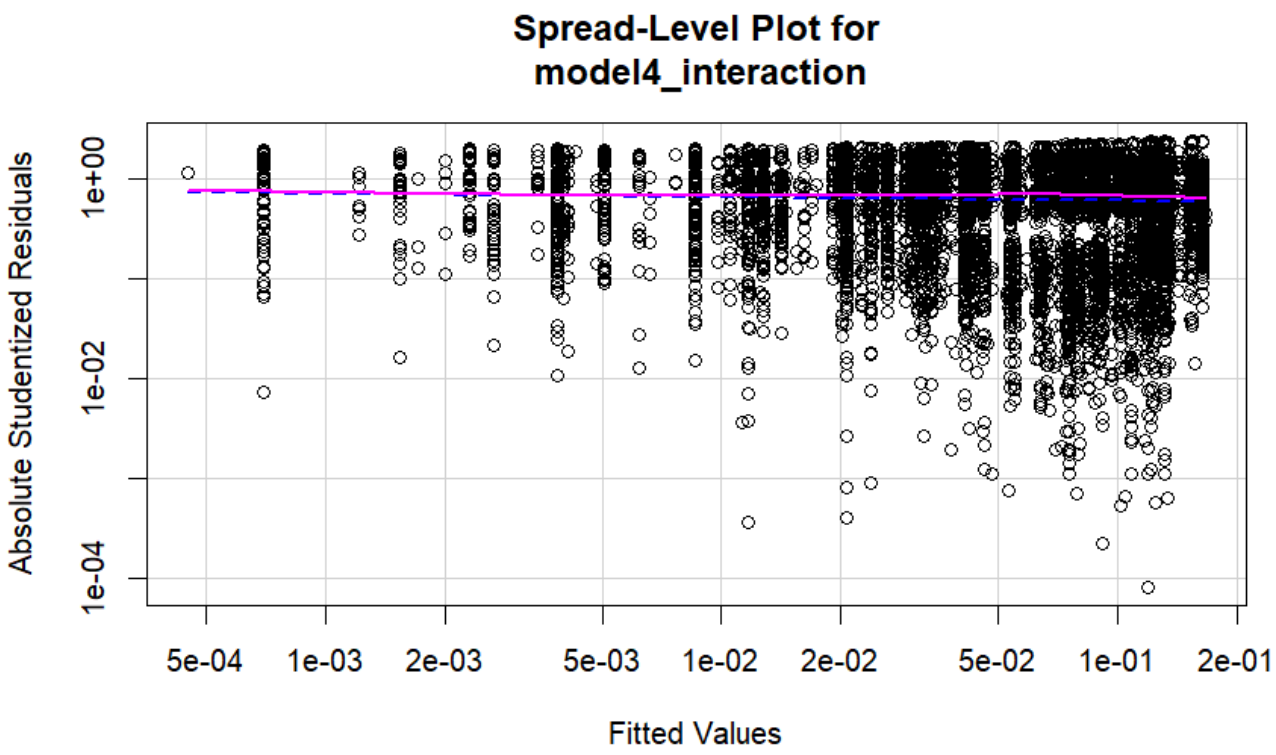
```
Coefficients:
                        Estimate Std. Error t value Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)            -0.003048   0.033257  -0.092 0.926965
marital_status         -0.076278   0.024751  -3.082 0.002062 **
children                0.016793   0.022098   0.760 0.447317
education               0.011751   0.014311   0.821 0.411598
urban                  -0.113272   0.014718  -7.696 1.51e-14 ***
religiosity             0.131949   0.013445   9.814  < 2e-16 ***
income                  0.017146   0.018402   0.932 0.351498
gender                  0.111681   0.041867   2.667 0.007652 **
age_cohort25-34        -0.072726   0.038344  -1.897 0.057893 .
age_cohort35-44        -0.017732   0.040800  -0.435 0.663859
age_cohort45-54         0.074507   0.042251   1.763 0.077855 .
age_cohort55-64         0.158627   0.043406   3.654 0.000259 ***
age_cohort65+           0.202960   0.047853   4.241 2.24e-05 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34 -0.114641   0.050407  -2.274 0.022966 *
gender:age_cohort35-44 -0.080055   0.050794  -1.576 0.115036
gender:age_cohort45-54 -0.055821   0.051896  -1.076 0.282112
gender:age_cohort55-64 -0.075030   0.052092  -1.440 0.149796
gender:age_cohort65+   -0.080133   0.055809  -1.436 0.151071
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1

Residual standard error: 0.704 on 12060 degrees of freedom
Multiple R-squared:  0.03518,  Adjusted R-squared:  0.03382
F-statistic: 25.87 on 17 and 12060 DF,  p-value: < 2.2e-16
```

Appendix 25 Test for multicollinearity, Model 4 – Trust in state institutions

	GVIF	Df	GVIF^(1/(2*Df))	Interacts With
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>	<chr>
marital_status	1.827864	1	1.351985	--
children	2.000331	1	1.414330	--
education	1.083028	1	1.040686	--
urban	1.043128	1	1.021337	--
religiosity	1.049248	1	1.024328	--
income	1.067225	1	1.033066	--
gender	1.907597	11	1.029792	age_cohort
age_cohort	1.907597	11	1.029792	gender

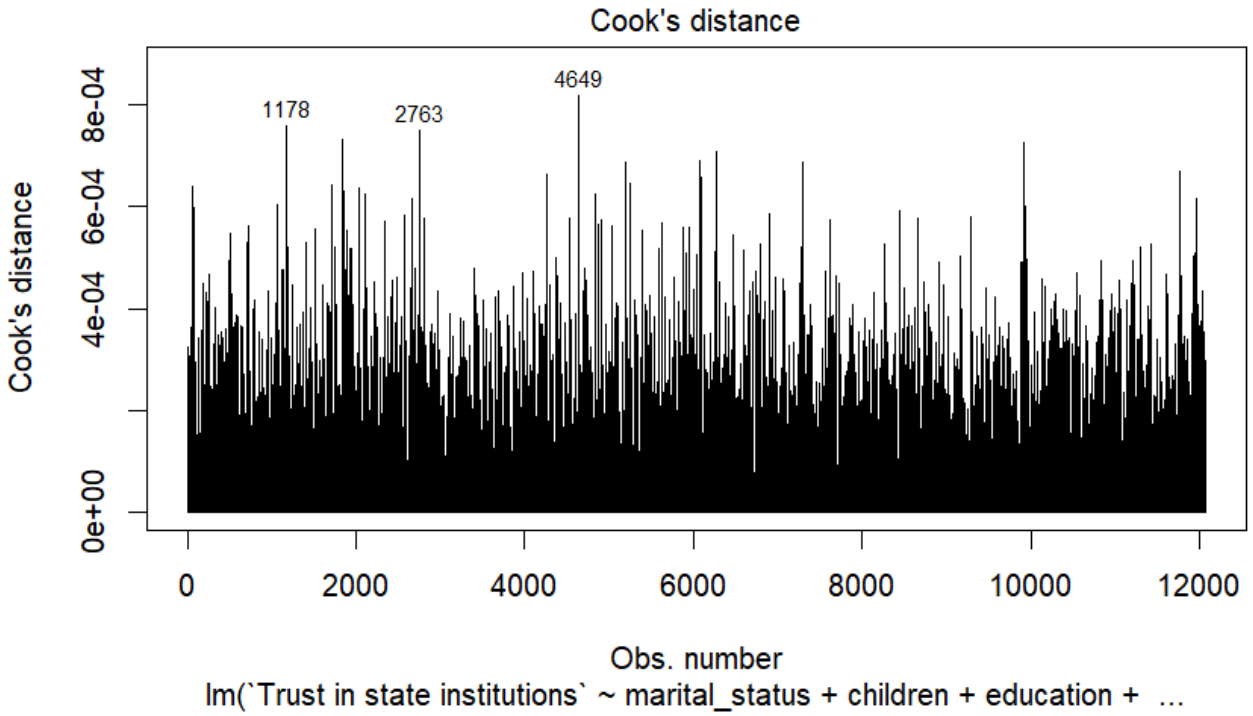
Appendix 26 Test for heteroscedasticity, Model 4 – Trust in state institutions



Appendix 27 Test for outliers, Model 4 – Trust in state institutions

	rstudent	unadjusted p-value	Bonferroni p
	<dbl>	<dbl>	<dbl>
6272	-2.412328	0.015866	*NA*

Appendix 28 Test for influential observations, Model 4 – Trust in state institutions



Appendix 29 Regression table with fixed heteroscedasticity and omitted outlier, Model 4 – Trust in state institutions

```
t test of coefficients:

                         Estimate Std. Error t value  Pr(>|t|)
(Intercept)            -0.0257170  0.0168110 -1.5298  0.126100
marital_status         -0.0027595  0.0122014 -0.2262  0.821080
children                0.0093176  0.0109782  0.8487  0.396041
education              -0.0120264  0.0068329 -1.7601  0.078418 .
urban                  -0.0327638  0.0070148 -4.6707 3.034e-06 ***
religiosity             0.0295852  0.0065410  4.5231 6.153e-06 ***
income                 -0.0101063  0.0088511 -1.1418  0.253553
gender                 -0.0239540  0.0207669 -1.1535  0.248741
age_cohort25-34         0.0635863  0.0195830  3.2470  0.001169 **
age_cohort35-44         0.0647188  0.0204740  3.1610  0.001576 **
age_cohort45-54         0.1068230  0.0211565  5.0492 4.502e-07 ***
age_cohort55-64         0.1437589  0.0214265  6.7094 2.042e-11 ***
age_cohort65+           0.1532276  0.0233985  6.5486 6.044e-11 ***
gender:age_cohort25-34 -0.0463277  0.0250257 -1.8512  0.064164 .
gender:age_cohort35-44 -0.0250489  0.0250685 -0.9992  0.317709
gender:age_cohort45-54 -0.0398971  0.0254816 -1.5657  0.117440
gender:age_cohort55-64 -0.0217504  0.0253446 -0.8582  0.390806
gender:age_cohort65+    0.0241737  0.0269627  0.8966  0.369972
---
Signif. codes:  0 '***' 0.001 '**' 0.01 '*' 0.05 '.' 0.1 ' ' 1
```